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TIBETAN GRAMMAR

H. A. JÄSCHKE

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H. A. JÄSCHKE

THE PROJECT GUTENBERG EBOOK OF TIBETAN GRAMMAR

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Title: Tibetan Grammar

Author: H. A. Jäschke

Editor: H. Wenzel

Release date: October 22, 2022 [eBook #69207]

Most recently updated: October 19, 2024

Language: English

Original publication: United Kingdom: Trübner and Co., 1883

Other information and formats: www.gutenberg.org/ebooks/69207

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BY

H. A. JÄSCHKE

MORAVIAN MISSIONARY.

SECOND EDITION

PREPARED BY

DR. H. WENZEL.

LONDON:

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1883.

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[V]

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PREFACE.

The present new edition of Mr. JÄSCHKE's Tibetan Grammar scarcely needs a word of apology. As the first edition which was lithographed at Kyelañ in 1865 in a limited number of copies has long been out of print, Dr. ROST urged the author to revise his grammar for the purpose of bringing it out in an improved form. The latter, prevented by ill-health from undertaking the task, placed the matter in my hands, and had the goodness to make over to me his own manuscript notes and additions to the original work. Without his personal cooperation, however, I was unable to make any but a very sparing use of these, adding only a few remarks from Gyalrabs and Milaraspa, with some further remarks on the local vernacular of Western Tibet. Indeed, special attention has been paid throughout to this dialect; it is the one with which the author during his long residence at Kyelañ had become most familiar, and with which the English in India are most likely to be brought into direct contact.

Besides the above mentioned additions, I have taken a number of examples from the Dzañlun, to make clearer some of the rules, and, with the same view, I have altered, here and there, the wording of the lithographed edition. [VI] The order of the paragraphs has been retained throughout, and only one (23.) has been added for completeness' sake.

The system of transliteration is nearly the same as in the Dictionary, only for *ny*, *ñ* is used, and instead of *ę*, *ä* (respectively *ā*) has been thought to be a clearer representation of the sound intended. For the niceties of pronunciation the reader is referred to the Dictionary, as in this Grammar only the general rules have been given.

Finally I must express my warmest thanks to Dr. ROST, to whose exertions not only the printing of this Grammar is solely due, but who also rendered me much help in the correcting of the work.

Mayence, May 1883.

H. WENZEL.

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ABBREVIATIONS.

act. = active.

C or CT = Central Tibet, especially the provinces of Ü and Tsan.

cf. = confer, compare.

Dzl. = Dzanlun.

e.g. = *exempli gratia*, for instance.

ET = East Tibet.

fut. = future.

imp. = imperative.

inf. = infinitive.

ᱵᱟᱨᱟ = instead of.

Köpp. = Köppen.

Kun. = Kunawur, province under English protection.

Ld. = Ladak, province.

Mil. = Milaraspa.

neutr. = neuter verb.

perf. or pf. = perfect.

pres. = present.

s. = see.

term. = terminative case.

Thgy. = Thar-gyan, scientific treatises.

v. = vide, see.

vulg. = vulgar expression.

W or WT = Western Tibet.

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ERRATA.

The corrections listed below have been applied to the text.

Page 3, line 13 read a t instead of in.
4, 2 respectively.
” ” ”
4, 7 which instead of whom.
” ” ”
4, 9 under particular.
” ” ”
4, 14 همزة instead of همرة.
” ” ”
4, 20 exertion.
” ” ”
4, 21 dele to .
” ” ”
5, 5 dele down .
” ” ”
7, 4 read succession instead of conjunction.
” ” ”
7, 5 each instead of either.
” ” ”
7, 11 subscribed instead of subjoined.
” ” ”
8, 11 foot for food.
” ” ”
8, 12 subscribed for subjoined.
” ” ”
8, 16 homonyms.
” ” ”

	8,	19	language.
”	”	”	
	8,	23	over instead of above.
”	”	”	
	8,	24	consonants.
”	”	”	
	9,	10	case.
”	”	”	
	10,	4	judgment.
”	”	”	
	11,	9	except.
”	”	”	
	12,	21	it instead of is.
”	”	”	
	13,	1	which serve to denote.
”	”	”	
	13,	7	preceding.
”	”	”	
	14,	6	exclamation.
”	”	”	
	20,	3	indiscriminately.
”	”	”	
	20,	5	superseded.
”	”	”	
	20,	19	But.
”	”	”	
	21,	5	adds.
”	”	”	
	23,	1	motion.
”	”	”	
	26,	13	terminations.
”	”	”	
	26,	<u>20</u>	precedes.
”	”	”	
	<u>27</u> ,	<u>3</u>	higher than.
”	”	”	
	33,	6	to denote.
”	”	”	
	34,	14	letter-writing.
”	”	”	

36,	1	The terms most &c.
”	”	”
36,	16	high person speaking of himself.
”	”	”
38,	11	ghan.
”	”	”
39,	14	you may.
”	”	”
40,	7	verbs.
”	”	”
40,	21	an Accusative.
”	”	”
40,	25	<u>neuter.</u>
”	”	”
41,	10	form instead of shape.
”	”	”
41,	11	forms instead of shapes.
”	”	”
41,	22	the Perfect prefers.
”	”	”
42,	1	Perfect.
”	”	”
42,	16	recognises instead of acknowledges.
”	”	”
43,	20	idea instead of notion.
”	”	”
45,	14	with the exception.
”	”	”
46,	6	which will always be.
”	”	”
46,	10	to one.
”	”	”
52,	15	it expresses.
”	”	”
53,	11	found.
”	”	”
53,	24	passive sense, opposed to &c.
”	”	”
55,	7	affixes.
”	”	”

	58,	12	that it.
”	”	”	
	61,	12	king’s.
”	”	”	
	64,	8	intended.
”	”	”	
	66,	15	‘principally, very’;
”	”	”	

[1]

PART I.

PHONOLOGY.

1. The Alphabet. The Tibetan Alphabet was adapted from the *Lañc'a* () form of the Indian letters by *T'on-mi-sam-bho-ta* () minister of king *Sron-tsan-gam-po* () about the year 632 (s. Köpp. II, 56). The Indian letters out of which the single Tibetan characters were formed are given in the following table in their Nāgari shape.

	surd.	aspir.	sonant.	nasal.
gutturals.	<i>ka</i>	<i>k'a</i>	<i>ga</i>	<i>ṅa</i>
palatals.	<i>ca</i>	<i>c'a</i>	<i>ja</i>	<i>ña</i>
dentals.	<i>ta</i>	<i>t'a</i>	<i>da</i>	<i>na</i>
labials.	<i>pa</i>	<i>p'a</i>	<i>ba</i>	<i>ma</i>
palatal sibilants.	<i>tṣa</i>	<i>t'ṣa</i>	<i>dṣa</i>	
semivowels	<i>wa</i>	<i>ṣa</i>	<i>za</i>	<i>ṣa</i>
	<i>ya</i>	<i>ra</i>	<i>la</i>	
	<i>ṣa</i>	<i>sa</i>	<i>ha</i>	<i>'a</i>

[2]

It is seen from this table that several signs have been added to express sounds that are unknown in Sanscrit. The sibilants evidently were differentiated from the palatals. But as in transcribing Sanscrit words the Tibetans substitute their sibilants for the palatals of the original (as

for), we must suppose that the sibilisation of those consonants, common at present among the Hindus on the Southern slopes of the Himālaya (who say *tsār* for , four etc.), was in general use with those Indians from whom the Tib. Alphabet was taken (cf. also the Afghan $\dot{\text{c}}$ and $\dot{\text{ch}}$ likewise sprung from च and च). is differentiated from , which itself often is pronounced *v*, as shewn in the sequel; in transcribing Sanscrit, and both are given, generally, by only. seems to be formed out of to which it is related in sound. evidently is only the inverted . corresponds with Sanscrit . is newly invented; for its functions see the following §§.—The letters which are peculiar to Sanscrit are expressed, in transcribing, in the following manner. *a*) The linguals, simply by inverting the signs of the dentals: thus, , , , . *b*) The sonant aspirates, by putting under the sonants: thus, , , , , , . ¹ [3]

2. Remarks. 1. Regarding the pronunciation of the single letters, as given above, it is to be born in mind, that surds are uttered without the least admixture of an aspiration, viz. as *k*, *t*, *p* are pronounced in the words *skate*, *stale*, *spear*; the aspirates forcibly, rather harder than the same in *Kate*, *tale*, *peer*; the sonants like *g*, *d*, *b* in *gate*, *dale*, *beer*. 2. The same difference of hardness is to be observed in or $\dot{\text{c}}$, $\dot{\text{c}}'$, $\dot{\text{j}}$ ($\dot{\text{c}}'$ occurs in *church*; $\dot{\text{c}}$, the same without aspiration; $\dot{\text{j}}$ in *judge*) and in or *ts*, *t's*, *ds*. 3. is the soft modification of $\dot{\text{s}}$ or the *s* in *leisure* (French *j* in *jamais*, but more palatal). 4. is the English *ng* in *sing*, but occurs in Tibetan often at the commencement of a syllable. 5. $\tilde{n}$ is the Hindi , or the initial sound in the word *new*,

which would be spelled $\tilde{n}u$. 6. In the dialects of Eastern or Chinese-Tibet, however, the soft consonants $\tilde{n}$, $\tilde{m}$, $\tilde{y}$, when occurring as initials, are pronounced with an aspiration, similar to the Hindi $\tilde{n}$, $\tilde{m}$, $\tilde{y}$, or indeed so that they often scarcely differ from the common English k , t , p , ch ; also $\tilde{n}$ and $\tilde{m}$ are more difficult to distinguish from n and m than in the Western provinces (Exceptions s. §§ [7.8](#)).

3. Vowels. 1. Since every consonant sign implies, like its Sanscrit prototype, a following a , unless some other vowel sign is attached to it, no particular sign is wanted to denote this vowel, except in some cases specified in the [\[4\]](#)following §§. The special vowel signs are $\tilde{e}$, $\tilde{i}$, $\tilde{o}$, $\tilde{u}$, pronounced respectively as e , i , o , u are in German, Italian and most other European languages, viz. $\tilde{e}$ like ay in *say*, or e in *ten*; $\tilde{i}$ like i in *machine*, *tin*; $\tilde{o}$ like o in *so*, *on*; $\tilde{u}$ like u in *rule*, *pull*. It ought to be specially remarked that all vowels, including e and o (unlike the Sanscrit vowels from which they have taken their signs) are short, since no long vowels at all occur in the Tibetan language, except under particular circumstances, mentioned below (s. § [9.5](#), 6). 2. When vowels are initial, $\tilde{a}$ is used as their base, as is $\tilde{l}$ in Urdu, e.g. $\tilde{a}ma$, ‘mother’. 3. $\tilde{a}$ is originally different from $\tilde{l}$, as the latter denotes the opening of the previously closed throat for pronouncing a vowel with that slight explosive sound which the Arabs mean by $\tilde{a}$ (همزة), as the a in the words: the *lily*, an endogen, which would be in Tibetan characters $\tilde{a}$; $\tilde{l}$ on the contrary is the mere vowel *without* that audible opening of the throat (as Arabic $\tilde{l}$ without $\tilde{a}$), as in *Lilian*, $\tilde{l}$. In Eastern Tibet this difference is strictly observed; and if the vowel is o or u the intentional exertion for avoiding the sound of $\tilde{a}$ makes it resemble *wo* and *wu*:

‘the milk’, almost like *wo-ma*, ‘the owl’ = *wug-pa*. In
western Tibet this has been obliterated, and is there spoken just like

·

4. Syllables. The Tibetan language is monosyllabic, that is to say all its words consist of one syllable only, which indeed may be variously composed, though the [5]component parts cannot, in every case, be recognised in their individuality. The mark for the end of such a syllable is a dot, called *t’seg*, put at the right side of the upper part of the closing letter, such as the syllable *ka*. This *t’seg* must invariably be put at the end of *each* written syllable, except before a *śad* (§ 10), in which case only *ña* retains its *t’seg*. If therefore such a dot is found after two or more consonants, this will indicate that all of them, some way or other, form *one* syllable with only *one* vowel in it: *ka-ra*, *kar* (cf. §§ 5. 8).

5. Final consonants. 1. Only the following ten:

(and the four with affixed , v. 5) occur at the end of a syllable. 2. It must be observed, that as finals are never pronounced like the English *g*, *d*, *b* in *leg*, *bad*, *cab*, but are transformed differently in the different provinces. In Ladak they sound like *k*, *t*, *p* e.g.

 = *sock*, = *got*, = *top*. 3. In all Central Tibet,

moreover, final and , sometimes even , modify the sound of a preceding vowel: *a* to *ä* (similar to the English *a* in *hare*, *man*), *o* into *ọ* (French *eu* in *jeu*), *u* into *ụ* (French *u* in *mur*). In most of the other provinces and are uttered so indistinctly as to be scarcely audible, so that , become *sọ̈*, *gọ̈*. In Tsang even final is scarcely perceptible, and final , particularly after *o*, is almost dissolved

vowel is distinctly audible. In prosody they are generally regarded as one syllable, but if the verse should require it they may be counted as two.

7. Compound consonants. 1. They are expressed in writing by putting one below the other, in which case several change their original figure.

Subscribed consonants. 2. The letter *y* subjoined to another is represented by the figure ག, and occurs in connection with the three gutturals and labials, and with *m*, thus

ག. The former three have preserved, in most cases, their original pronunciation *kya*, *k'ya*, *gya* (the latter in ET: *ghya* s. § 2.6). In the Mongol pronunciation of Tibetan words, however, they have been corrupted into ཅ, ཅ', ཇ respectively, a well known instance of which is the common pronunciation *Kanjur* i.o. *kangyur*, or eleg. *ka-gyur* (ཀ་གཡུར་).

ཀ, ཅ, ཅ' are almost everywhere spoken without any difference from ཀ, ཅ, ཅ' (except in the Western dialect before *e* and *i*, where the *y* is dropped and ཀ, ཅ, ཅ' alone are pronounced). ཇ is spoken *ny* = ཇ. 3. *r* occurs at the foot of the gutturals, dentals, labials, of ཀ, ཅ, ཅ', and ཇ, in the shape of ར. In some parts of the country, as in Purig, these combinations [8] are pronounced literally, like *kra*, *khra* etc., but by far the most general custom is to sound them like the Indian cerebrals, viz. ཀ = ཀ; ཅ, ཅ' = ཅ; ཇ = ཇ (in CT: ཇ); only in the case of ཇ the literal pronunciation *br* is not uncommon. In ཀ and ཅ both letters are distinctly heard; ཅ sounds like *shr* in *shrub*, and so does ཅ' generally. In Ü this *r* is dropped nearly in all cases: thus, ཀ'a, ཅa etc. 4. Six letters are often found with an ག beneath:

; in these the alone is pronounced, except in , which sounds *da*. 5. The figure , sometimes found at the foot of a letter is used in Sanscrit words to express the subscribed , as in

(cf. § 9. 6) for ; and is now pronounced by Tibetans = *ō*: *sōhā*; in words originally Tibetan it now exists merely as an orthographical mark, to distinguish homonyms in writing, as *t'sa*, 'hot' and *t'sa*, 'salt'; but, as it is spoken, in some words at least, in Balti (e.g. *rtswa* 'grass'), it must be supposed that, in the primitive form of the language, it was generally heard.—*Note*. Of such compounds, indeed, as

'lot' it is difficult to understand, how they can have been pronounced literally, if the *v* was not, perhaps, pronounced before the *y*.

Superadded consonants. 6. *r* over another consonant is written ^Ṛ, and 11 consonants have this sign:

, above it preserves [9] its full shape, as better adapted to the form of that letter: thus, . In speaking it is seldom heard except provincially, and in some instances in compound words after a vowel thus, *Urgyán*, *Urgyén*, ancient name of the country of Lahore; *dórje* 'vajra'. Ladakees often pronounce it = *s*:

sta 'horse' elsewhere *ta*. 7. Similar is the usage in those with a superadded (namely: the surds and sonants of the first four classes, the guttural nasal, and), which latter is often softly heard in WT, but entirely dropped elsewhere, except in the case of , which is spoken = in WT, but with a distinct aspiration = *hla* or *lha* in ET. 8. is superadded to the gutturals, dentals and labials with exception of the aspiratae, then and

. It is, in many cases, distinctly pronounced in Ladak, but dropped elsewhere³. 9. with any superadded letter lose the aspiration mentioned in § 2.6 and sound = *g, d, b, j̣, ds*. 10.

often lose even the inherent *t*-sound in pronunciation and are spoken like *j̣, s, z*.

¹ A very clear exposition of the ramification of Indian alphabets by Dr. Haas is to be found in the Publications of the Palaeographical Society Oriental Series IV, pl. XLIV. ↑

² This is the form in which the word, chosen by the missionaries to express the Christian “God” (cf. dict.), has found its way into several popular works. ↑

³ This will be indicated in the following examples by including the *s* in parentheses, as *(s)kom*. ↑

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EXAMPLES.

	<i>kyir-kyir,</i>	<i>(s)gyúr-wa,</i> to
round, circular.		alter, turn.
<i>k'yi,</i> dog.		W: <i>(s)pin,</i> C: <i>ç'in,</i>
<i>gyen-la,</i>		glue.
upwards.		<i>ʈe-u,</i> Ld: <i>ʂre-u,</i>
<i>ç'ug(s),</i> Ü: <i>ç'ū,</i>		monkey.
cattle.		W: <i>(s)man,</i> C: <i>män,</i>
<i>kyu,</i> hook.		medicine.

k'yod, C: *k'yö*,
you.

č'ug-po, rich.
W: *p'ed*, C: *č'ě*,
half. [10]

W: *já-mo*, C: *j'a-*
mo, hen.

W: *ña-nán*, C:
-nän, misery.

ṭam, cabbage.

ṭ'im(s),
judgment.

W: *ḍaṇ-mo*, C:
ḍ'°-, cold.

ṭ'ug-gu,
child.

ṣran-ma, *srän-*
ma, pea.

la, wages.

() *luṇ(-po)*,
wind.

da-wa (s. § [11](#)
[note](#)), moon.

nón-po, C:
ṇom-po, sharp.

W: *bé-ma*, C: *j'e-ma*,
sand.

ñur-du, quickly.

ṭ'al, tax.

W: *ḍi*, *ḍ'i* (Pur: *gri*),
knife.

W: *ḍaṇ-po*, C: *ḍ'°*,
straight.

ḍag, *ḍ'ag* (*brag*), rock.

ṣrul-po, ragged.

lá-ma, priest.

lá-mo, easy.

kaṇ-pa, foot.

W: *zun*, C: *dsuṇ*, lie,
untruth.

tad-mo (Ld. *lt°*), C:
tä'-mo, spectacle.

W: *ṣra¹*, C: *ṭa*, hair.

ḍa (vulg.: *ra*), sound,
voice.

(*s*)*pu*, small hair.

W: (*s*)*čod-pa*, C:
čö'-pa, to behave.

W: (*sb*)*rul*, C: *ḍul*,
snake.

<i>jañ-k'u</i> (Ld.	W: <i>ñon-pa</i> , C:
<i>lj°</i>), green.	<i>ñon-pa</i> , mad.
(<i>s</i>) <i>kom</i> , thirst.	
(<i>s</i>) <i>go</i> , door.	

[11]

8. Prefixed letters. 1. The five letters frequently occur before the real, radical initials of other words, but are seldom pronounced, except in similar cases as § 7. 6. occurs before ; before the gutturals and labials with exception of the aspiratae; before , the palatals, dentals and palatal sibilants with the same exception as under , then ; before the gutturals, palatals, dentals and palatal sibilants, except the surds; before the aspiratae and sonants of the five classes. In CT, to pronounce them in any case, is considered vulgar. 2. The ambiguity which would arise in case of the prefix standing before one of the 10 final consonants, as single radical, the vowel being the unwritten *a*,—e.g. in the syllable , which, if is radical, has to be pronounced *dag*, if prefixed *gā*,—is avoided by adding an in the latter case: thus, . Other examples are: *gad* (*g'ä'*) and *dā*; *bas* (*bā*, *b'ā*) and *sā*; *mad* (*mä'*) and *dā*; *gā*. This is added, though the radical be not one of the mentioned letters; as, *kā*. 3. as a prefix and as first radical annul each other, so that only the following sound is heard, as will be seen in the [12] following examples

(etc.). 4. Another irregularity is the *n a s a l* pronunciation of the prefixed in compounds after a vowel, which is often heard e.g.

pronounced *gen-dún*, *gen-dún*, but eleg.: *ge-dún*, ‘clergy’;

kam-bum, eleg. *ka-búm*, ‘the 100 000 precepts’ (title of a book).—*Note*. With regard to the aspiration of the soft consonants in ET the prefixed letters have the same influence as the superadded ones § [7.9](#).

[\[Contents\]](#)

EXAMPLES.

<i>yag</i> , bos grunniens.	<i>kár-po</i> , white.
<i>pé-č’a</i> (Ld.: <i>spe-č’a</i>), book.	<i>ḍá-wo</i> , enemy.
<i>záñ-po</i> , good.	<i>ñár-mo</i> , sweet.
<i>bab-pa</i> , to descend.	<i>čub-ži</i> , eleg. <i>ču-ži</i> , fourteen.
<i>wañ</i> , vulg. C: <i>añ</i> , power.	<i>u</i> , resp. head.
<i>Ū</i> , name of the Lhasa district.	<i>ug(s)</i> , C: <i>ug</i> , <i>ū</i> , breath.
<i>en-pa</i> , solitude.	<i>yar-ka</i> , summer.
<i>yib(s)</i> , <i>ib</i> , figure.	<i>ye-wa</i> , <i>e-wa</i> , difference.

9. Word; Accent; Quantity. 1. The peculiarity of the Tibetan mode of writing in distinctly marking the word-syllables, but not the words (cf. § 4) composed of two or more of these, sometimes renders it doubtful what is to be regarded as one word. 2. There exist a great number of [13]small monosyllables, which serve to denote different shades of notions, grammatical relations etc., and are postponed to the word in question; but never alter its original shape, though their own initials are not seldom influenced by its final consonant (cf. § 15). 3. Such monosyllables may conveniently be regarded as terminations, forming one word together with the preceding nominal or verbal root. 4. The accent is, in such cases, most naturally given to the root, or, in compounds, generally to the latter part of the composition, as: *mig*, ‘eye’, *míg-gi*, ‘of the eye’; *lag*, ‘hand’, *lag-šub(s)*, ‘hand-covering, glove’.—5. Equally natural is, in WT, the quantity of the vowels: accentuated vowels, when closing the syllable, are comparatively long (though never so long as in the English words *bee*, *stay*, or Hindi *جا* etc.), otherwise short, as *mī* ‘man’, *mī-lă* ‘to the man’, but *măr*, ‘butter’.—In CT, however, even accentuated and closing vowels are uttered very shortly: *mĭ*, *mĭ-lă* etc., and long ones occur there only in the case of § 5, 4. 5. and 8, 2., as *lā* ‘work’; *č’ō* ‘religion’; *dā* ‘arrow’; *zā* ‘planet’; and in Lhasa especially: *nā* ‘forest’; *lē-pa* ‘good’; *rī* ‘class, sort’; *lō* ‘side’; *lū* ‘manner’.—In Sanscrit words the long vowels are marked by an *ā* beneath the consonant, as: () ‘called’, () ‘root’ (s. § 3). [14]

10. Punctuation. For separating the members of a longer period, a vertical stroke: *ṣad* (ṣä’), is used, which corresponds at once to our

comma, semicolon and colon; after the closing of a sentence the same is doubled; after a longer piece, e.g. a chapter, four *šads* are put. No marks of interrogation or exclamation exist in punctuation.—2. In metrical compositions, the double *šad* is used for separating the single verses; in that case the logical partition of the sentence is not marked (cf. § 4).

[[Contents](#)]

A LIST OF A FEW USEFUL WORDS.

or	<i>ká-ra, k'á-</i>	<i>dud-pa, d'ü'-pa,</i>
<i>ra</i> , sugar.		smoke.
	<i>k'an-pa</i> , house.	<i>nad, nä'</i> , disease.
W: <i>gañ</i> , C: <i>g'an</i> , which?		<i>pár-ma</i> , a printed book.
W: <i>gur</i> , C: <i>g'ur</i> , tent.		<i>p'ug-rón, -rón,</i>
<i>ñal</i> , fatigue.		dove.
<i>çi</i> , what?		<i>bal, b'al</i> , wool.
W: <i>ç'ad-pa</i> , C: <i>ç'ă'-</i>		<i>bu-mo, b'°</i> , daughter.
<i>pa</i> , punishment.		<i>miñ</i> , name.
	<i>ç'un-wa</i> , little.	<i>tsam</i> , how much?
W: <i>ja</i> , C: <i>j'a</i> , tea.		<i>žag</i> , C: <i>šag</i> , day.
	<i>ñí-ma</i> , sun; day.	<i>o-ma, wo-ma</i> , milk.
	<i>ñún-ma</i> , turnip.	<i>yañ</i> , also.
		<i>yin</i> , am, is, are (cf. § 39).

tíb-ril, tea-pot,
 kettle.
 W: *kun*, C: *kün*, all.
k'un̄, hole.
 or W: *ga-ru*,
gar, C: *g'°*, where?
nan-pa, C: *nam-pa*,
 bad.
 , *č'an̄*, beer.
č'ár-pa, rain.
č'en-po, great.
ña, fish.
ñun̄-wa, little, few.
ñe-mo, near.
tóg-tse (W),
 hoe. [15]
t'ag-pa, rope.
 W: *t'ód-pa*, C:
t'ö'-pa, skull.
dan̄, *d'an̄*, and; with.
nag-po, black.
nor, wealth, property.
p'an-pa, *p'äm-pa*,
 use, benefit.
ba, *b'a*, cow.

ra-ma, goat.
rin, price.
lam, road.
ša, flesh, meat. [16]
šin̄, tree, wood.
su, who?
a-p'a, (vulg.) father.
 (Ld: *ras*) *rā*, cotton cloth.
 (Ld: *gos*) *gō*, *g'ō*,
 clothing.
sem, soul.
ṭ'ag, blood.
leb-pa, to arrive.
 W: *sa*, C: *tsa*, grass.
non-po, *ṇom-po*,
 blue.
žu, bow (for shooting).
gun-ka, *ḡun-ka*,
 winter.
t'so, lake.
ḍi-wa, to ask.
sa, earth.
só-ma, new.
a-ma, (vulg.) mother.

<i>bu</i> , <i>b'u</i> , son.	(Ld.: <i>dus</i>) <i>dū</i> , <i>d'ū</i> , time.
<i>me</i> , fire.	<i>t'ab(s)</i> , means.
<i>med</i> , <i>mě'</i> , there is not.	W: <i>bag-p'e</i> , C:
<i>t'saṇ-ma</i> , whole.	<i>b'ag-č'e</i> , flour.
<i>žo</i> , <i>šǒ</i> , curdled milk.	<i>ḍo</i> , <i>ḍ'ǒ</i> , wheat.
<i>od</i> , <i>wö'</i> , light, shine.	<i>gad-po</i> , <i>g'ä'-po</i> ,
<i>yí-ge</i> , letter.	old.
<i>yod</i> , <i>yö'</i> , am, is, are.	(s) <i>kye-wa</i> , to be
<i>ri</i> , hill, mountain.	born, grow.
<i>la</i> , mountain-pass.	<i>ñiṇ</i> , heart.
<i>lug</i> , sheep.	<i>zig</i> , leopard.
<i>t'án</i> , the plain.	 <i>gyog(s)-pa</i> (Ü:
W: <i>da</i> , C: <i>d'a</i> , now.	<i>gyō-pa</i>), fast, quick.
	<i>ḍi-wa</i> (<i>bri-wa</i>), to
	write.

[17]

¹ The concurrence of superadded with a consonant already [11]compound produces in WT some irregularities, which cannot all be specified here (see the diction.). The custom of CT, according to which the is entirely neglected is in this instance easier to be followed. †

PART II.

ETYMOLOGY.

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CHAPTER I.

THE ARTICLE.

11. Peculiarities of the Tibetan article. 1. What have been called *Articles* by Csoma and Schmidt, are a number of little affixes:

, and some similar ones, which might perhaps be more adequately termed *denominators*, since their principal object is undoubtedly to represent a given root as a *noun*, substantive or adjective, as is most clearly perceptible in the instance of the roots of verbs, to which or impart the notion of the Infinitive and Participle, or the nearest abstract and nearest concrete nouns that can possibly be formed from the idea of a verb. These affixes are not, however,—except in this case—essential to a noun, as many substantives and adjectives and most of the pronouns are never accompanied by them, and even those which usually appear connected with them, will drop them upon the slightest occasion. 2. Almost the only case in which a syntactical use of them, like that of the English definite Article, is perceptible, is that mentioned § [20.3](#); a formal one, that of distinguishing the Gender, occurs in a limited number of words, where denotes the female, the masculine. Thus:

gyál-po ‘king’, *gyál-mo* ‘queen’. Or, [18] if the word in the masculine (or rather common) gender has no article, is added:

sén-ge ‘lion’, ‘lioness’. 3. In most instances, by far, their only use is to distinguish different meanings of homonymous roots, e.g.

(s)tón-pa (*tón-pa*), ‘teacher’;

(s)tón-mo (*tón-mo*) ‘feast’;

(s)tón-k’a (*tón-*

k’a) ‘autumn’. Even this advantage, however, is given up, as soon as a composition takes place, and then the meaning can only be inferred from

the context, or known from usage: (from)
 ‘name feast’ (given on the occasion of naming or christening an infant);
 (from) ‘autumnal month’. In some instances
 the putting or omitting of these articles is optional; more frequently the
 usage varies in different provinces. 4. The peculiar nature of these affixes is
 most clearly shown by the manner in which they are connected with the
 indefinite article § 13.

Note. The affixes are after vowels and after the consonants
 always pronounced *wa* and *wo*, instead of *ba* and *bo*; thus,
ka-wa ‘difficult’; *re-wa* ‘hope’; *gañ-wa*
(gh°) ‘full’; *zer-wa* (*ser-wa*) ‘to say’; *nyal-wa*
 ‘hell’; *jo-wo* (*jho-wo*) ‘lord, master’.

12. Difference of the Articles among each other. 1. The usage of

is the most general and widest of all, [19] as they occur with all sorts of
 substantives and other nouns. is particularly used for denoting a man
 who is in a certain way connected with a certain thing (something like *والا*
 and *دار* in Hindustāni and Persian): *ḍa* ‘school’,
 (literally: scholar) ‘disciple, novice’; *č’u* ‘water’, ‘water-
 carrier’ (*پانی والا*); ‘horse’, ‘horseman’; ‘the
 province of ʾ, ‘a man from ʾ, *k’yëu* ‘boy’,
lo ‘year’, *ñi(s)* ‘two’, hence:

‘a two years’ boy’. If the feminine is required is either added to, or
 —more commonly—used instead of, the former: ‘a woman
 from ʾ; ‘a two years’ girl’. The performer

of an action is more frequently denoted by (or, in more solemn language,), though, in conversation at least, *k'an (k'en)*, is preferred; *jed-pa* 'to do, make; doing, making': , 'the doer, maker'. 2. The appendices occur with a limited number of nouns only, especially the names of the seasons, with numerals, and some pronouns. (seems to be a vulgar form of pronunciation for).

13. The indefinite Article. This is the numeral one (§ 13), only deprived of its prefix, viz.: , which form it retains, if the preceding word ends with , as: [20] *k'ab-čig*, a needle; it is changed to after , *ras-šig, rä-šig*, a cloth; to *žig (šig)* in all other cases. Some authors use after any termination indiscriminately. It is, of course, always without accent. The articles etc. are not superseded by the indefinite article e.g. 'teacher, the teacher', 'a teacher'. It is used even after a plurality: thus, 'there were some four wells', and even: 'there being a multitude of them' (from Mil.). Very often it is placed after the interrogative pronouns (v. 27), and sometimes its original meaning is obscured so much that it occurs even after known and definite subjects, where one would expect the demonstrative (see f.i. Dzl. 25, 1. 28, 6. 128, 14).

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CHAPTER II.

THE SUBSTANTIVE.

14. The Number. The Plural is denoted by adding the word *nam*, or, more rarely, *dag* (*d'ag*), , or a few other words, which originally were nouns with the common notion of plurality. But this mark of the Plural is usually omitted, when the plurality of the thing in question may be known from other circumstances, e.g. when a numeral is added: thus,

‘man’, ‘men’, ‘three men’. When a

substantive is connected with an adjective, the plural sign is added only once, viz. after the [21]last of the connected words:

‘the good men’.

Note. The conversational language uses the words etc. seldom, in WT scarcely ever (an exception s. [24. Remarks](#)), but adds, when necessary, such words as: all, many, some; two, three, seven, eight, or other suitable numerals (cf. § [20,5](#)).

15. Declension. The regular addition of the different particles or single sounds by which the cases are formed is the same for all nouns, whether substantives or adjectives, pronouns or participles. Only in some cases, in the Dative and Instrumental, the noun itself is changed, when, ending in a vowel, it admits of a closer connection with the corrupted case-sign. We may reckon in Tibetan seven cases, expressive of all the relations, for which cases are used in other languages, viz: nominative and accusative, genitive, instrumental, dative, locative, ablative, terminative and vocative. 1. The unaltered form of the noun has some of the functions of our Nominative and those of the Accusative and Vocative. 2. The sign of the Genitive is

after words with the finals ; after ,
 after and ; after vowels *i* is simply added by means of an
 thus: , which then will form a diphthong with the vowel of the noun
 (cf. § 6), or if, in versification, two syllables are required, *i* appears
 supported by an forming a distinct word. 3. The Instrumental or Agent
 is expressed by the particles , or after the
 respective [22]consonants as specified above; after vowels simply is
 added, or, in verse, sometimes :

Note. The instrumental is, in modern pronunciation, except in Northern Ladak, scarcely discernible from the genitive, and there are but few if any, even among lamas, who are not liable to confound both cases in writing.

In the language of common life, in W T , the different forms of the particle of the genitive and instrumental, after consonants, etc. are never heard, but everywhere the final consonant is doubled and the vowel *i* added to it, thus: , G. *lus-si* (Ld.), *lū-i*; , G. *lam-mi*; (gold), G. *ser-ri* etc; or, in other words, all nouns ending in consonants are formed like those ending with (see the example). In those ending with a vowel no irregularity takes place.

4. The Dative adds indiscriminately the postposition *la*, denoting the relation of space in the widest sense, expressed by the English prepositions *in, into, at, on, to*. 5. The Locative is formed by the postposition *na* ‘in’. 6. The Ablative by *nā* or *lā* ‘from’ (the latter especially with the meaning: *from among*), all three likewise without any discriminating regard to the ending of the noun. 7. The Terminative is

expressed by the postpositions or after vowels; after final
 and and, in certain words, ; after ;
 generally after and the other final consonants. All these
 [23]postpositions denote the motion to or into. 8. The Vocative is not
 different from the Nominative (as stated above), if not distinguished by the
 interjection *oh!*, and can only be known from the context.

Examples of declension. As example of the declension of consonantal
 nouns we may take 1. for those in *s* (respectively *d*, *b*), *lus*, *lū̄*,
 ‘body’; 2. for those in *m* (*n*, *r*, *l*), *lam* ‘way’; 3. for those in *g* (*ṇ*),
 mig ‘eye’,—of that of vocalic nouns: 4. *k’a* or *k’a-wa* ‘snow’.

Singular.

	1.	2.
N.	<i>lus</i> , <i>lū̄</i>	<i>lam</i>
Acc.		
Gen.	<i>lus-kyi</i> , <i>lū̄-kyi</i> ; <i>lus-si</i> , <i>lū̄i</i>	<i>lam-gyi</i> ; <i>lam-mi</i>
Inst.	<i>lus-</i> <i>kyis</i> , <i>lū̄-kyī</i> ; <i>lus-sī</i> , <i>lū̄ī</i>	<i>lam-gyis</i> , <i>-gyī</i> ; <i>lam-mī</i>
Dat.	<i>lus-la</i> , <i>lū̄-la</i>	<i>lam-la</i>
Loc.	<i>lus-na</i>	<i>lam-na</i>
Abl.	<i>lus-nā̄</i>	<i>lam-nā̄</i>
Term.	<i>lus-su</i>	<i>lam-du</i>
	3.	4.

	1.	2.	
N.	<i>mig</i>	<i>k'a;</i>	<i>k'a-wa</i>
Acc.			
Gen.	<i>mig-gi</i>	<i>k'ai;</i>	<i>k'a-wai</i> [24]
Inst.	<i>mig-gis, -</i> <i>gī</i>	<i>k'ā;</i>	<i>k'a-wā.</i>
Dat.	<i>mig-la</i>	<i>k'a-la;</i>	<i>k'a-wa-la</i>
Loc.	<i>mig-na</i>	<i>k'a-na;</i>	<i>k'a-wa-na</i>
Abl.	<i>mig-nā.</i>	<i>k'a-nā;</i>	<i>k'a-wa-</i> <i>nā.</i>
Term.	<i>mig-tu</i>	, ,	<i>k'a-ru, k'ar;</i> <i>k'a-wa-ru, k'a-war.</i>

Plural.

As the plural signs are simply added to the nouns, without affecting their form, we here only give examples of declension with the two most frequent plural particles. As example for the plural of the pron. 'that' has been chosen.

N.	<i>lus(lū-)-nam(s)</i>	<i>de-dag</i>
Acc.		
Gen.	<i>lus-nam(s)-</i>	<i>de-dag-gi</i>
	<i>kyi</i>	
Inst.	<i>lus-</i>	<i>de-dag-</i>
	<i>nam(s)-kyis</i>	<i>gis</i>

Dat.	<i>lus-nam(s)-la</i>	<i>de-dag-la</i>
Loc.	<i>lus-nam(s)-na</i>	<i>de-dag-na</i>
Abl.	<i>lus-nam(s)-nā̄.</i> <i>nā̄.</i>	<i>de-dag-</i>
Term.	<i>lus-nam(s)-su</i>	<i>de-dag-tu</i>

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CHAPTER III.

THE ADJECTIVE.

16. In the Tibetan language the Adjective is not formally distinguished from the Substantive, so that many nouns may be used one or the other way just as circumstances require.¹ The declension, likewise, follows the same rules as that of substantives. Only two remarks may be added here. 1. The particles *ri-* and *po* are not very strictly used for distinguishing the gender, since even in the case of human beings *ri-* and *po* are not seldom found connected with feminines, e.g.: *ri-po* just as well as *po-po* ‘a fine girl’. 2. The Adjective stands after the Substantive to which it belongs: thus, *ri-t’ón-po*, C: *ri-t’ón-po*, ‘the high hill’, when, of course, the case-signs [26] are joined to the Adjective: *po-po* ‘of the high hill’, *po-po-po* ‘the high hills’ etc.

Or the Adjective may be put in the Gen. b e f o r e the Substantive:
 , and then the latter only is declined:

, . In the vulgar speech both of C and WT the adjective sometimes preserves, even in this position, its simple form (Nominative). A third way of expression, when both are joined together, without any article, as instead of ‘th e d r y l a n d d’, is rather a compound substantive, with the same difference of meaning as ‘highland’ and ‘a high land’ in English.

17. Comparison. 1. Special terminations, expressive of the different degrees of comparison, as in the Aryan languages, do not exist in Tibetan.

There are two particles, however, corresponding to the English *than*: , after the final consonants and after vowels (, after ²), and ; these particles follow the word with which another is compared (like the Hind. س) and this then precedes the compared one, finally follows the adjective in the positive: (or) ‘horse—than dog small is’, just as in Hindūstāni: کٲا چھوٲا هٲی س گھوڑی. But also the position usual in [27]our European languages occurs, thus:

‘the merit of becoming a priest is relatively higher than mount Meru’;
‘the king of Tibet is greater than the other ones’. The particle () may be put, in the same manner, after adverbs. Thus,

‘(their eyes) became more keen-sighted than before’.
Or, after infinitives,
‘it is better (for him) that his younger brother should go (with him) than another’. for itself has the meaning of ‘more than’, with the negative: ‘not more than’, ‘only’; thus:

‘more than two ounces I do not want’ (cf. vulg. WT:
‘there are not more than (only) three’); or
‘nothing but’, ‘only’,
‘there is no pleasure (for us) but hunting, h. is our only pl.’.

2. An Adverb which augments the notion of the adjective itself, is

‘more’; this can be added ad libitum:

3. Another adverb, 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 means: ‘more and more’, ‘gradually more’, e.g. 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘going nearer and nearer’. 4. ‘The elder—the younger’ e.g. of two brothers, is [28] simply expressed by: ‘the great—the little’. 5. The Superlative is paraphrased by the same means: 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 or 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘greater than all’. Or it is expressed in the following manner:

𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘of (among) the kings of the country which one is the greatest (prop. great)?’. Adverbs for expressing high degrees are: 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 or 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘very’, 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘all’, 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘quite’, 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘exceedingly’ etc.

Note. The colloquial language of WT uses 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 instead of 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰, and 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 (*mā*, always with a strong emphasis, perhaps a mutilated form of 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘much’) or 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 instead of 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰, whereas that of CT employs 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 in the former case, but repeats the adjective in the latter, so that ‘very large’ is expressed in books by 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰, in speaking, in WT by *mā c̣’én-po*, in CT by *c̣’em-po c̣’em-po*.

¹ But the vulgar language has a predilection for certain forms of Adjectives 1. those with the gerundial particle 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰, as: 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 for the more classical 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘warm’; these seem to be particularly in use in Tsañ: 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘friendly’, less so in Ü. 2. compound adjectives either by simple reiteration of the root: 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 for 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘round’, or changing the vowel at the same time: 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘complicate’, 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘awry’ etc. Often they are quadrisyllables after this form: 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘lukewarm’, 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰 ‘medley’. ¹

² Some Mscr. and wood-prints, however, prefer, even after these consonants, the form 𐌸𐌹𐌺𐌹𐌺𐌰. ¹

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CHAPTER IV.

THE NUMERALS.

18. Cardinals:

1	<i>çig</i>	
2	<i>ñi(s)</i>	
3	<i>sum</i> [29]	
4	<i>ži</i>	
5	<i>na</i>	
6	W: <i>ḍug</i> , C: <i>ḍhug</i>	
7	W: <i>dun</i> , C: <i>dhun</i>	
8	W: <i>gyad</i> , C: <i>gyä'</i>	
9	<i>gu</i>	
10	<i>çu</i> , or	<i>çu-t'am-pa</i>
11	<i>çu-çig</i>	
12	<i>çu-ñí</i> , vulg: <i>çuḡ-ñí(s)</i>	
13	<i>çu-súm</i> , vulg: <i>çuḡ-súm</i>	
14	<i>çu-ží</i> , vulg: <i>çub-ží</i>	
15	<i>ço-ńá</i>	
16	<i>çu-ḍúḡ</i> , C: <i>-ḍhúḡ</i>	

17		<i>cu-dún</i> , C: <i>-dŭn</i> , vulg: <i>cub-</i>
	<i>d°</i>	
18		<i>co-gyád</i> , C: <i>-gyä'</i> , vulg:
	<i>cob-g°</i>	
19		<i>cu-gú</i>
20		<i>ñi-su</i>
21		<i>ñi-su-sa-číg</i> , or
		<i>ñer-číg</i> [30]
30		<i>súm-cu</i>
31		<i>sum-cu-sa-číg</i> ,
		<i>so-číg</i>
40		<i>zi-cu</i> , vulg: <i>zib-cu</i>
41		<i>zi-cu-sa-číg</i> ,
		<i>ze-číg</i>
50		<i>na-cu</i> , vulg: <i>nab-cu</i>
51		<i>na-cu-sa-číg</i> ,
		<i>na-číg</i>
60		<i>ɖug-cu</i> , C: <i>ɖhug-cu</i>
61		<i>ɖug-cu-sa-číg</i> ,
		<i>re-číg</i>
70		<i>dun-cu</i> , C: <i>dŭn-cu</i>

71		<i>dun-ču-sa-ćíg,</i>
		<i>don-ćíg</i>
80		<i>gyád-ču, C: gyä'-ču</i>
81		<i>gyad-ču-sa-</i>
	<i>ćíg,</i>	<i>gya-ćíg</i>
90		<i>gú-ču, vulg: gúb-ču</i>
91		<i>gu-ču-sa-ćig,</i>
		<i>go-ćíg (C: g'o-ćíg)</i>
100	(	) <i>gya (t'ám-pa)</i>
101		or
		<i>gya dañ (or sa) ćíg</i>
200		<i>ñi-gya, vulg: ñib-gya</i>
300		<i>sum-gya</i> [31]
400		<i>ži-gya, vulg: žib-gya etc.</i>
1000		<i>(s)toñ</i>
10 000		<i>ṭ'i</i>
100 000		<i>bum</i>
1 000 000		<i>sa-ya</i>
10 000 000		<i>ḡe-wa</i>

There are, as in Sanscrit, names for many more powers of 10, but they are seldom used.

19. Ordinals. W: *dan-po*, C: *d'°* ‘the first’, the rest are simply formed by adding to the cardinals, as: , ‘the second’ etc.; the 21st is ‘the twenty-oneth’, not, as in English, ‘the twenty first’.

20. Remarks. 1. The smaller number postponed indicates, as is seen in § 18, addition, the reverse—multiplication: 13, 30; but in the latter case the three first numerals are changed to , , ; and , as the second part of a compound after consonants, is spelled . 2. The words (after full tens up to one hundred), (after hundreds and thousands¹), [32] (with still greater numbers), are optional but frequent additions. is common instead of ‘and’, to connect units with tens (s. § 18), but it occurs also with hundreds and thousands, and not seldom together with , e.g. , 1002. It is used also instead of , as: ten, twenty; often it is standing alone for , as , twenty two. This latter custom may have caused the belief, common even among educated readers in C and WT, that must mean t w e n t y , even when connecting a hundred or thousand to a unit, as they will usually understand the above mentioned number in the sense of 1022 instead of 1002; but the authority of printed books, wherever the exact number can be verified from other circumstances, does not confirm this, which would indeed be a sadly ambiguous phraseology. 3. added to a cardinal number means conjunction: , the two together, both; , the three together, all three etc. means either the same, or represents the

definite article, indicating that the number has been already mentioned, e.g.

, five men were sent.... The five men arriving etc. 4. is used, besides [33] forming Ordinals, to express the notion of ‘containing’, e.g. ‘that containing six letters’, viz. the famous formula: *om maṇi padme hum*;

‘that containing thirty (letters)’, the Tibetan alphabet. 5. Such combinations as etc. are frequently used in common life, to denote a number approximately, ‘two or three or so’ (cf. § [14 Note](#)).

21. Distributive numerals. They are expressed by repetition as in Hind.: each time six, six for each etc. In composed numerals only the last member is repeated, thus each time thirty two.

22. Adverbial numerals. 1. Firstly, secondly etc. are formed from the ordinals as every Adverb is from an Adjective, viz. by adding the letter , etc. (s. § [41](#)). 2. Multiplicative adverbs, ‘once’, ‘twice’ etc., are expressed by putting ‘times’ before the cardinal: , W: *lan-čig*, *lan-ñi(s)*, C: *län-čig*, *län-ñi* ‘once, twice’ etc.: seldom , with the same meaning as .

23. Fractional numerals are formed by adding ‘part’: thus, ‘a hundredth part’ etc., but also:

‘one third of the treasury’. [\[34\]](#)

¹ is used especially if the number counting the hundreds, [\[32\]](#)thousands etc. follows: thus,
..... ‘of thousands: twenty, 20 000’; ‘many ten-
thousands’. [↑]

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CHAPTER V.

PRONOUNS.

24. Personal Pronouns. First person: *ña*; *ñed, ñě*;
ños (Ld.); *k'o-wo*, masc., and *k'o-mo*, fem.;
 dag 'self'—'I'; Second person: *k'yod* (*k'yö*),
k'yed (*k'yě*) 'thou, you'; Third person: *k'o*, *k'on*—'he, she,
it'.

The plural is formed by adding , , or ,
but very often, if circumstances show the meaning with sufficient certainty,
the sign of the plural is altogether omitted. The declension is the same as
that of the substantives.

R e m a r k s : is the most common and can be used by every body;
 seems to be preferred in elegant speech (s. [Note](#)); is very
common in modern letter-writing, at least in WT; 'self', when
speaking to superior persons occurs very often in books, but has
disappeared from common speech, except in the province of Tsan
(*Tašilhunpo*) as also the following; , in easy
conversation with persons of equal rank, or to inferiors.

2 . p e r s o n . is used in books in addressing even t h e
h i g h e s t p e r s o n s , but in modern conversation only among equals or
to inferiors; is elegant and respectful, especially in books.— [35]

3. person. seldom occurs in books, where the demonstr. pron.

(§ 26) is generally used instead; is common to both the written and the spoken language, and used, at least in the latter, as respectful. But it must be remarked that the pronoun of the third person is in most cases entirely omitted, even when there is a change of subject.—

Instead of and the people of WT use and ; the vulgar plural of is .—

To each of these pronouns may be added: *rañ* or *ñid, ñĩ'*

‘self’, and in conversational language , ,

are, perhaps, even more frequently used than the simple forms, without any difference in the meaning. is more prevalent in books, except the compound *ñi-rañ*, which is in modern speech the usual respectful pronoun of address, like ‘Sie’ in German.

Note. The predilection of Eastern Asiatics for a system of ceremonials in the language is met with also in Tibetan. There is one separate class of words, which must be used in reference to the honoured person, when spoken to as well as when spoken of. To this class belong, besides the pronouns

, , , all the respectful terms by which the body or soul, or parts of the same, and all things or persons pertaining to such a person, and [36]even his actions, must be called. The terms, most frequently occurring, have special expressions, as (s)ku, instead of

lus, lū, ‘body’; u, i.o. go ‘head’; t’ug(s) (Ü: t’ū),

i.o. sem(s) ‘soul’, or yid, yĩ’, ‘mind’; yab, i.o.

(vulg:), ‘father’; na-za, i.o. gos, gō, ‘coat’,

‘dress’; *č’ib(s)*, i.o. *(r)ta, sta* ‘horse’;
žug(s)-pa (Ü: *žū-pa*), i.o. *dod-pa, dö’-pa* ‘to sit’;
dzad-pa, dzä’-pa i.o. *jed-pa, jěh’-pa* ‘to make’ and many
others. If there is no such special word, any substantive may be rendered
respectful by adding or respectively (so,
i.o. ‘lifetime’; i.o. ‘anger’) and any
verb by adding , according to [39, 1](#). Another class of what might
be called e l e g a n t terms are to be used when conversing with an
honoured person (or also by a high person speaking of himself), such as
 gyid-pa, gyi’-pa ‘to do’; *č’ī-pa* ‘to be’;
 lad-du, lä’-du i.o. ‘for the sake of’,
w i t h o u t reference to the said person himself. Even uneducated people
know, and make use of, most of the ‘respectful’ terms, but the merely
‘elegant’ ones are, at least in WT, seldom or never heard in conversation.

25. Possessive pronouns. The Possessive is simply [\[37\]](#) expressed by the
Genitive of the Personal, , etc. ‘His’, ‘her’, ‘its’,
when referring to the acting subject (*suus*), must be expressed by
 or ‘his own’; otherwise (*ejus*) by ,
 , . In C, in the latter case, , ,
 are used.

26. Reflective and Reciprocal pronouns. 1. The Reflective pronoun,
‘myself’, ‘yourself’ etc. is expressed by , , also . But in
the case of the same person being the subject a n d object of an action, it
must be paraphrased, so for ‘he precipitated himself from the rock’ must be
said ‘he precipitated his own body etc.’ ; for ‘he rebuked

himself'—'he rebuked his own soul' .—2. The reciprocal pronoun 'each other' or 'one another' is rendered by 'one—one', as 'by one one was killed', 'they killed one another'; 'to one one said', 'they said to each other'.

27. Demonstrative pronouns. 1. *di*, 'this'; *de, dhe* 'that' are those most frequently used, both in books and speaking. The Plural is generally formed by , but also by and . More emphatical are , , , , 'just this', 'this same'; etc. 'that same'.—The vulgar dialect also uses *hǎ-gyi* [38] and *p'ǎ-gyi* for 'that', 'yonder', and, in WT, , for 'this' and for 'that'; occurs even in books.—2. It is worth remarking that the distinction of the nearer and remoter relation is, even in common language, scrupulously observed. If reference is made to an object already mentioned, is used; if to something following, ; e.g. 'that speech he said', 'thus he said'; 'this speech he said', 'he said thus, spoke the following words'.

28. Interrogative pronouns. They are *su* 'who?'; *gañ, ghañ* 'which?'; *çi* 'what?'; to these the indefinite article is often added, etc. The two former can also assume the plural termination , , .—In CT is frequently used instead of :

29. Relative pronouns. These are almost entirely wanting in the Tibetan language, and our subordinate relative clauses must be expressed by Participles and Gerunds, or a new independent sentence must be begun. The participle, in such a case, is treated quite as an adjective, being put either in the Genitive before the substantive, or, in the Nominative, after:

‘the merchants who would go (with him)’;

‘the cord on which turquoises are

strung’;

[39] ‘one who gets

(unto whom come) many presents’. Cf. also 33. Only those indefinite sentences which in English are introduced by ‘he who’, ‘who ever’, ‘that which’, ‘what’ etc. can be adequately expressed in Tibetan, by using the interrogative pronouns with the participle (seldom the naked root) of the verb, or adding (‘if—’ v. 41, A. 4.) to the latter. Instead of in this case is written more correctly. Thus:

‘if anybody who

possesses the good faith teach it me’;

‘when those of you who wish to go are

assembled’;

‘this jewel (*cintāmaṇi*)

will make come down like rain whatever is wished for’;

‘whatever

you may say and ask of me according to that I will act, or I will grant you whatever you ask’.

‘having scooped the water of the sea with

what force I have’;

‘I beg you to show me what sort

of jewel you have found (got)';

‘his footprints, in what

place soever they fell (v. lex. s. v.), became gold-sand’. [\[40\]](#)

But the participle is treated as if no relative was preceding, thus

‘he did not recede

from (recall) the word he had spoken before’; vulg., WT,

‘the room where I sat’.

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CHAPTER VI.

THE VERB.

30. Introductory remarks. The Tibetan verbs must be regarded as denoting, not an action, or suffering, or condition of any subject, but merely *a coming to pass*, or, in other words, they are all *impersonal* verbs, like *taedet*, *miseret* etc. in Latin, or *it suits* etc. in English. Therefore they are destitute of what is called in our own languages the active and passive voice, as well as of the discrimination of persons, and show nothing beyond a rather poor capability of expressing the most indispensable distinctions of tense and mood. From the same reason the acting subject of a transitive verb must regularly appear in the *Instrumental* case, as the case of the subject of a neuter verb,—which, in European languages, is the Nominative—, ought to be regarded, from a Tibetan point of view, as an *Accusative* expressing the object of an impersonal verb, just as ‘*poenitet me*’ is translated by ‘*I repent*’. But it will perhaps be easier to say: The subject of a transitive verb, in Tibetan, assumes regularly the form of the instrumental, of a neuter verb that of the nominative which is the same as the accusative. Thus, is properly: [41] a
beating happens, regarding you, by me = I beat you. In common life the object has often the form of the dative, , to facilitate the comprehension. But often, in modern talk as well as in the classical literature, the acting subject, if known as such from the context, retains its Nominative form. Especially the *verba loquendi* are apt to admit this slight irregularity.

31. Inflection of verbs. This is done in three different ways:

a) by changing the form of the root. Such different forms are, at most, four in number, which may be called, according to the tenses of our own grammar to which they correspond, the Present-, Perfect-, Future-, and Imperative-roots; e.g. of the Present-root tsag 'to give' the Perfect root is tsag, the Future-root tsag, the Imperative root tsag; of tsag 'to filter, bolt' respectively: tsag(s) (Ü: tsā), tsag, t'sog. The Present root, which implies duration, is also occasionally used for the Imperfect (in the sense of the Latin and Greek languages) and Future tenses. It is obvious, from the above mentioned instances, that the inflection of the root consists partly in alterations of the prefixed letters (so, if the Perfect prefers the prefixed ts, the Future will have ts or retain the ts), partly in adding a final s (to the Perfect and Imperative), partly in changing the vowel (particularly in the Imperative). But also the consonants of the root itself are changed [42] sometimes: so the aspirates are often converted in the Perfect and Future into their surds, besides other more irregular changes. Only a limited number of verbs, however, are possessed of all the four roots, some cannot assume more than three, some two, and a great many have only one. To make up in some measure for this deficiency:

b) some auxiliary verbs have been made available: for the Present tense tsag, tsag, tsag and others, all of which mean 'to be' (§ 39); for the Perfect tsag, tsag, tsag; for the Future tsag, tsag, tsag and the substantive tsag.

c) By adding various monosyllabic affixes, the Infinitive, Participles, and Gerunds are formed. These affixes as well as the auxiliary verbs are

connected partly with the root, partly with the Infinitive, resp. its terminative, partly with the Participle.

Note. The spoken language, at least in WT, recognises even in four-rooted verbs seldom more than the Perfect root.

32. The Infinitive mood. The syllables *pa* or, after the final consonants and vowels, *wa* are added to the root, whereby it assumes all the qualities and powers of a noun. In verbs of more roots than one, each of them can, of course, in this way be converted into a substantive, or, in other words, each tense has its Infinitive, except the Imperative. From one-rooted verbs the different Infinitives may be formed by the above mentioned auxiliaries: thus, the Inf. Perf., by adding to the Infinitive of [43] the verb in question, or , , to the root, and the Inf. Fut. by adding to the Supine (terminative of the infinitive, [41. B](#)) thus, visurum esse, visum iri.

Note. The spoken language uses, in WT almost exclusively, a termination pronounced *ças* in Turig and Balti, *çes*, *çe* in Ladak, *çe* in Lahoul etc., *ja* in Kunawar, *še* in Tsañ etc., the etymology of which is doubtful, as it is not to be found in any printed book. Lamas in Ladak and Lahoul spell it .

33. The Participle. 1. This is in the written language entirely like the Infinitive ‘being’, ‘giving’, ‘having given’.—2. Whether the meaning is active or passive, however, can only be inferred from the context, e.g. is of course ‘the money given’, but ‘the man having given, or, that has given, the money’; the Tibetan participle means nothing but that

the action or condition is connected in some way with a person or thing. But it is natural that in the present participle the active idea should be the more frequent one, as well as in the preterit the passive.—3. In the instance of Intensive verbs (formed with [38.1](#)) the usage of scientific authors has strictly connected the active sense with those formed with

, as *toñ-jèd, toñ-j'ě*, instead of

, 'doing give, giving, [\[44\]](#)giver', and the passive to those

with , as *toñ ja, toñ j'a* i.o.

'to be given' (dandus),

'to teach the things to be done and not to be done' (Thgy.).—4. In certain cases, especially with verbs that mean: to say, ask etc., the Participle is used before the words of the speech, where we should use the Imperfect:

'the king said....'

Note. In the spoken language, of WT at least, the Participle is formed by , in the active sense as well as the passive (whereas in books this syllable occurs only in the meaning of the performer of an action, s. [12.1](#)):

ñul tañ k'an-ni mi (s. [15, Note](#)) 'the

man giving the money',

'the money

given'.

'the

lama who brought a coat for sale the other day'.

'the girl who had

shewn the door to his reverence' (Mil.). The future participle is represented, just as in English, by the Infinitive ([32, Note](#)), so that 'the sheep to be killed', (in books or

) is expressed, in the most Western provinces, by: *sád às-*

the question 'do (you) see' and the answer
'(I) see', are commonly spoken in WT: *t'oh-ña? t'oh*.

35. Present Tenses. 1. Simple Present Tense. This is the simple root of the verb, which will always be found in the dictionary; in WT, as mentioned above, of verbs with more than one root, only the Perfect root is in use; if, therefore, stress is laid on the Present signification, recourse must be had to one of the following compositions (s. [31](#). and [Note](#)). Thus, '(I, thou, he etc.) see, seest etc.', '(I etc.) give' through all persons; in the end of a sentence:

2. Compound Present Tenses. a) (s. [40, 1](#)) is added to the root:
'(I) see', '(I) give'. This is common in the dialect of WT especially.—b) The Participle connected with
'I see'. In WT this, of course, is changed to
.—c) One of the Gerunds ([41, A](#)) with or
as (or or or), or
'(I) see, am seeing'; it must, however, be remarked that both ways of expression, b) and c), are not very frequent.—d) or
is the proper form for the compound [\[47\]](#)English present:
'(I) am seeing', '(I)
am writing (just now)'.

36. Preterit Tenses. 1. Simple Preterit, Perfect or Aorist Tense; this is the Perfect root: , at the close of the sentence 'gave, have given, was given'; in one-rooted verbs it has, of course, the same form as the present: () 'saw, have, or was, seen'. This is the usual

narrative tense like the Greek Aorist or French Parfait défini.—2.

Compound Preterit Tenses.—a) The root with () ,
'have given, gave, was given', () 'have seen, saw, was
seen'; rarely met with in books, but in general use in the conversation of
WT. In CT () *j'un* is used in a similar way:

() 'the dog has bitten'.—b) The root with () (more in books),
or () (more in common language), the true Perfect as the tense of
accomplished action: () , () 'have given etc.', 'the
action of giving is past', () 'the man has already left'.—c)
The Participle connected with () occurs more frequently in the past
sense than otherwise. Here, in the common talk of WT, () is used, even in
those cases where the books have () , () *yí-ge*
kál-pa yin, or, contracted, *kál-pen*, 'the letter has been sent off', in books:

(s. [11, Note](#)), even () [48] *la*
táns-pa yin, *táns-pen*, 'the wages have been paid' i.o. () .—

d) Gerunds in () (WT) or () (CT) with () or () (the
same as [35. 2. c](#)); also (in Ü Tsañ and later books) the mere Perfect root
with () , the () or () being dropped: () 'has
gone'.

37. Future Tenses. 1. Simple Future. The Future-root, ()
'shall, will give, be given'.—2. Compound Future. a) The auxiliary verb
(to grow, become) added to the Terminative case of the
Infinitive: () 'shall, will give, be given',
() 'shall, will see, be seen'. This is the
most common, and, together with the Simple Future and the Intensive ([39.](#)),

, the only one in use with the early classical authors in all cases where a special Future-root is wanted, and even where this exists. It disappears, however, gradually from the literature of the later period, and is replaced by the two following compositions.—*b*)

connected with the root: 'shall, will see',
'shall, will give' etc. (is originally a substantive, meaning *material, cause, occasion*).—*c*) the root with

or , 'will arrive', or, i.o. the root, the Term. Inf.,
.—Both *b*) and *c*) are even now in common [49]use

in CT, whereas in WT:—*d*) connected with the root is the general form:

t'on yin, vulg.: *t'ónin* 'shall, will see',

tánin, 'shall, will give', *kállin* 'will send',

č'a yin, *č'a'in*, *č'än* 'will go'.—*e*) In books the Participle with

([35. 2. b](#), [36. 2 c](#)) occurs sometimes also as Future.

38. Imperative mood. 1. This is usually the shortest possible form of the verb, which often loses its prefixed letters, though in some instances a final

is added. In many verbs with the vowel *a*, and in some with *e* these vowels are changed into *o*, besides other alterations of the consonants. Particularly often the surds or sonants of the other tense-roots are changed to their aspirates in the Imperative. Thus, 'give!', from

; Ld: *ltos*, CT: *tō*. 'look!', from ; 'throw!', from . In one-rooted verbs it is, of course, like the Present,

but it can always be sufficiently distinguished by adding the particle

(or , according to [13](#)). This is used in the classical literature indiscriminately in addressing the highest and the lowest persons

(or, in other words, as well to command, as to pray), but according to the modern custom of CT only when addressing servants and inferior people.—

2. In *f o r b i d d i n g*, the Present-root is used with the negative particle

, ‘do not give!’, ‘do [50]not look!’,

‘do not throw!’—3. In *p r a y i n g* or *w i s h i n g* (Precative or

Optative) either the same forms as under 1. are used, or the Imperatives of

‘to come’ or ‘to come’ (the latter, , of a

quite different root) are connected with the Termin. Infin.

or ‘may (I, you, he etc.) see!’—4. In none

of the three a person is indicated, but it is natural that in commanding and forbidding the subject will be the second, sometimes the third person; in the precative also the first person can be understood.

Note. The common language of WT, acknowledging only the Perfect-root, changes nothing but the vowel: ‘give!’ from ;

‘look!’ from ; ‘throw!’ from

(Perf. of). Instead of , which is not much

used, (‘give!’) is often added to the roots of other verbs (s. 39),

thus, *ton ton* ‘take out!’ from

(). Or the Imperative is paraphrased by *gos* (Ld.),

gō, *goi* ‘must’, added to the root of the verb: ‘must be

killed’.—In CT the changing of the vowel seems to be usually omitted, but

the is more used. Here, also, the Perfect root is not so exclusively preferred.

39. Intensive verbs. 1. Very frequent in books is the [51]connection of the

four-rooted verb (Pf. , Fut. , Imp.) ‘to

do', elegantly (Pf. , Fut. , Imp.), respectfully (Imp.) with the Term. Inf. of another verb, to intensify the action of the latter. By this means not only one-rooted verbs can be made to participate in the advantages of the four-rooted, as 'see', 'saw', 'shall, will see', 'see!', but also several other periphrastical phrases are gained for speaking more precisely than otherwise would be possible. The Future tense () serves, besides its proper notion of futurity, particularly to express the English auxiliaries 'must, ought etc.': thus,

'must not be uttered, ought not to be uttered', sometimes it may be translated by the Imperative mood. The spoken language, at least of WT, is devoid of this convenience, and possesses nothing of the kind except the above mentioned intensive form of the Imperative, formed by (s. [38., Note](#)).—2. Another class of intensive verbs are formed by connecting two synonyms, as 'to be afraid', literally 'to be fear-frightened', and other similar ones.

40. Substantive and Auxiliary Verbs. 1. To be a) , in elegant and respectful speech *lag-pa*, Ü: *lā-pa* (the latter word never used in WT) is the mere means [52] of connecting the attribute with its subject, as: 'this man is a Ladakee',

'is it you, Sir?'. Therefore the question is to be understood 'who are you' or 'who is he' etc., the personal pronoun being often let to be guessed.— itself is often omitted in daily life in WT as well as in poetry, e.g.

‘this load (is) very heavy’ WT. Negatively: *ya-pa*, *ya-pa*, vulg.
ya-pa, resp. *ya-pa*.—b) *yod-pa*, *yö’-pa*, eleg.
č’ī-pa, resp. *zug(s)-pa*, *Ü: žū-pa*, negat.: *ya-pa*,
ya-pa, means ‘to exist’, or ‘to be present’, ‘to be
found at a place’, therefore the question *ya-pa* is to be understood:
‘Who is here? Who is there?’— and *ya-pa* are in general
use, *ya-pa* is seldom heard. When connected with the Dative of a
substantive it expresses the English ‘to have, to have got’, as:
‘I have money’; *ya-pa* ‘I have pain’. In
this case the respectful term is not *ya-pa* but *na-*
wa: *na-wa* ‘has not the King an
indisposition?’ i.e. ‘is Your Majesty ill?’.—c) *dug-pa* (eleg.
ya-pa is seldom heard), resp. *ya-pa*, ‘to be present, stay, be
found at a place’; negat. [53] *ya-pa*. Both *ya-pa* and
ya-pa can be used instead of *ya-pa*, though not this instead of
them.—d) *rě’-pa* = *ya-pa*, negat. *ya-pa* in Spiti
and CT, seldom in books.—e) *mod-pa*, *mö’-pa* has a somewhat
emphatical sense: ‘to be (something) in a high degree’, ‘to be (somehow) in
plenty’. It occurs most frequently in the Gerund with *ya-pa* (41.), when it
frequently has the sense of ‘though’, but never with a negative.—f)
nan-wa, originally ‘to appear, to be visible, extant’, negat.

. Sometimes in books, and common in certain districts.—g) In
books the concluding *o* (34.) is, moreover, *found* to represent the verb ‘to
be’ in all its meanings, and is capable of being connected with words of all

classes besides verbs, e.g.

‘is the first’ =

. In a similar manner also the of the Imperative (38.)

implies the verb ‘to be’.—h) The Preterit root for all these verbs is *son* ‘was, has been’, and besides also ‘has gone, become’, which is its original meaning.—For the use of these verbs as auxiliaries s. 35. sq.

2. originally ‘to be changed, turned into something’ then ‘to become, to grow’, auxiliary for the Future tense in the old classical language, as mentioned in 37. Since this can be considered as the intransitive or passive sense, opposed to ‘to make, render’, the connection [54] of with the Term. Inf. of another verb must, in many cases, be rendered by the passive voice in our languages. In WT the verb *ç’a-çe* ‘to go’ is used in the sense of ‘to become, to grow’. The Perfect root for both is ‘(went), grew, became, has become, is’ (s. above).—In CT and later books is used instead.

3. ‘m u s t’ is expressed by ‘to be necessary’ (s. 38. Note). In WT this is used in a very wide sense for any possible modification of the notion of necessity: ‘I must, should, want to, ought’ and even ‘I will, wish, beg (for something)’ is nothing but ‘to me is necessary’ which may be, in the last mentioned case, rendered somewhat more politely by adding *žu* ‘pray!’ ‘I want potatoes, pray!’ is as much to say as ‘Will you kindly give me some potatoes’. In books and more refined language several other verbs are used in the same sense, viz. ‘it is right to’ (usually with the Genit. Infin.), ‘it is meet, decent’, ‘to wish, desire’, both

with the Supine; ‘to like’ with the Dat. Inf. The popular substitute of the last, especially in use in WT, is , of similar meaning, added to the root.

41. Gerunds and Supines. We retain these terms, employed by former grammarians, but observe that they do not refer to the *f o r m* , but to the *m e a n i n g* , as well as that Gerund is not to be understood in the same signification [55] as in Latin, but as the *Gérondif* of some French grammarians, or what Shakespeare calls Past conjunctive participle in Hindi. These forms are of the greatest importance in Tibetan, being the only substitutes for most of those subordinate clauses which we are accustomed to introduce by conjunctions. They are formed by the two monosyllabic affixes (so after the closing consonants); after , after and vowels and (or according to the same rule as [13.](#)), both of which are added to the root, or by the terminations mentioned in 15. as composing the declension of nouns, which are added partly to the root, partly to the Infinitive or Participle.

A. *G e r u n d s* . All the following forms can be rendered by the English Participle ending in *ing*, but the more accurate distinctions must be expressed by various conjunctions.

1. (etc.), the most frequent of all these endings. It is added to the Present-root as well as to the Perfect-root: ‘giving’, ‘having given’, and stands for all clauses beginning with *when, as, since, after* etc. Also in the spoken language of WT it is used most frequently.—Examples: ‘the

child, having been carried away by the water, died’;

‘the king

having died, the prince occupied [56]the throne (king’s-place)’;

‘as there is a great water, we cannot go’.

2. (etc.), of a similar sense, chiefly used for smaller clauses

within a large one, ‘when, being

displeased, he became angry’, or ‘growing displeased and angry’. Often it

denotes two actions going on at the same time, or two states of a thing

existing together, and then can only be translated by ‘and’, thus,

‘without end and boundary’;

‘to eat flesh and drink blood’¹. It stands

also in a causal sense: ‘by doing etc.’, as:

‘(we) live by catching fish’. These two (1. and 2.) can also, like the closing
o, as mentioned in [40. 1. g](#), be added to every class of words, in the sense of

being:

‘as you are

high(-born), being of a great family’. In conversation, is scarcely

ever heard.

3. (from, or after, doing something) in temporal clauses with ‘after,
when, as’; practically it is very much like , and often alternating with

it. In most cases, in speaking always, it is added to the root, seldom to the
infinitive.[57]—*Examples*.

‘when the night had

risen (viz. at daybreak) he went’;

‘after you will have

risen, go!’

‘when I saw that, raising clamour, I wept’.

4. ‘in (doing something)’ again for clauses with ‘since, when, as’, but in most cases by far for ‘if’ and conditional ‘when’: ‘if, or, when (I) go, or went’; ‘when, after (he) has died’, ‘if he is already dead’; ‘if (he) die, should die’, ‘if (he) died’, ‘when (he) dies’; ‘if ... do, did’; ‘if ... were to do’. It is added to the root, seldom to the infinitive, and as common in talking as in books.

5. is of more various use. When added to the root, it is very much like , which it replaces in the conversational language of CT (where the first example of 2. would be,), but does not occur so often except in imperative or precative sentences, when it is added to the Imperative root of the subordinate verb, just like other gerunds:

‘going look!’, ‘go and look!’ ‘rise and go!’. This particle, like the above-mentioned, implies the verb ‘to be’, especially when added to adjectives denoting a personal quality.

‘being ugly and short’;

[58]

‘pretty, being of a good figure and nice to behold’. When added to the Infinitive, it denotes: a) of course, the real Dative, or the usual meanings of the postposition with a substantive; thus,

‘to rejoice at killing, be fond of killing’. b) nearly the same as or ‘as’ in English, e.g.

‘as there was an idol-shrine in the

middle of the way, (she) alighted from (her) chariot’;

‘as the king went there daily to bathe’;

‘as

(it) does not occur in the (whole) world, what is (its) occurring here, or, how is it that it occurs here?’. Finally, in the language of common life is added to the repeated root in order to express the English ‘while, whilst’:

nāṣa

tub-túb-la k’yód-dī ([15](#), [Note](#)) *šin k’yon* WT, or

k’yö’-kyī šin kur-šog CT ‘while I am cutting the meat into pieces, bring you (some) wood’.

6. added only to the Infinitive, literally ‘out of (the doing)’. This may mean a) ‘a f t e r’, ‘to rise from lying, after having lain’;

‘after having been three days in [59]the grave (I) came out of the grave’.—b) ‘w h i l e’, in which case the root of the verb may be repeated, as:

‘out of my

walking i.e. when walking along, (I) met with a brahman’;

(the above mentioned example (s.) translated into classical language); c) also the English ‘being about to’ is, in books, often expressed by this Gerund:

‘when

(I) was about to enter, the door was shut’;

‘when (I) was going to die, (I) was restored to life

again'. Which of the three is the real meaning, will in most cases be clear from circumstances. This gerund is not used in talking, at least in WT.

7. () etc.) or () etc.), or the Instrumental and Genitive cases of the root, mean *a*) 'by doing something' or 'because', e.g. 'we come (here), because it is necessary'.

'since I am resolved to help you, do not be depressed!' This, originally, is a function of the Instrumental only, but in later times the other cases also are used in this meaning.—*b*) more frequently they are used adversatively, 'though', especially when connected with ([40. 1. e](#)),

'though (you) did [\[60\]](#) say so, by what shall (I) believe (it)?' In other cases it may be left untranslated when the next sentence will commence with 'but':

'not liking delicate food, he ate vulgar food' or 'he did not like d. f., but preferred v. f.'. This Gerund is scarcely used in talking, at least in WT.

8. (), the Instrumental of the Infinitive, 'by (doing something)' is, of course, the proper expression for 'because', but also very often used indiscriminately for or only for the sake of varying the mode of speaking: 'because it is very difficult'; 'when (he) looked'.

9. Also the proper use of which has been shewn above ([35. 2. d.](#)) must be mentioned once more as it occurs in a similar sense to , 'walk on praying (preces

faciendo)!'; 'beating (her own)
breast and weeping'.

B. *Supines*. They are expressed simply by the Terminative Case of the Infinitive or of the Root, or 'to see'. In many instances the use of either is optional, in others one is preferred. 1. Their use is: with adjectives like the Latin supine in *u*, e.g.

'difficult to learn'; with verbs expressing 'to go, to send' etc., [61] also 'to pray' etc. like that in *um*: 'go to fetch',

'(I) beg (you) to permit,—for permission'. In these cases the root is most common, but the Inf. , or ,

may also be used. 2. Another use of the Supine is *a*) with verbs of sensation and, less frequently, with those of declaration, where we use sentences with 'that' or the Participle or Infinitive:

'seeing (his) mother coming' (instead of which, however, may be said as well);

'knowing that the time of ...ing had arrived' (lit: 'that it had come down to the time');

'remembering him to be the king's son' or 'that he was...'.—*b*) in an adverbial sense, when we say 'so that', especially in negative sentences, 'so that not', 'without ...ing', 'so that nobody may (did) perceive it', or 'without anybody perceiving it'.

Note 1. The modern language of WT uses in the first instance ([B. 1.](#)) either the simple Infinitive, (or), or the same with , or with (for

the of the books s. [7.2.](#)),

; in the second either the same forms, or a particular one, which consists in repeating the final consonant [62] of the root with the vowel *a*, to which also may be added: thus,

‘(I) have come to meet you’; in the third, the direct Imperative adding for the sake of civility, ‘pray permit!’

In the case of [B. 2.](#), instead of , the expression in common use will be or ; instead of , either the same form, , or the Gerund, .—In CT those examples would respectively, stand thus, or or

láb-tu, láb-ba (sounding almost *lă-wa*), *láb-pa d’õn-d’u kag-po*; in the third instance a peculiar word, ‘*rog*’, is used, which is said to be originally the same as () ‘friend, assistant’, and serves now as the respectful substitute of , Particle of the Imperative, ‘pray permit!’, ‘pray give!’ Instead of etc. the most usual form in CT will be the simple Participle, .

Note 2. All the forms, of course, where or are met with might in certain cases belong to the Participle, and not to the Infinitive.

Note 3. The reader will have missed any mention of tenses of the class of Pluperfect, Past Future etc., and, [63] indeed, there exists no form of the kind,

and they can only be rendered by a Gerund, e.g.

‘when (he) had written the letter, (he) sent (it) off’; (WT:

, CT:) ‘when (he) shall have written the letter, (he) will send (it) off’. Neither have the Conditional or Subjunctive any special form. Thus, e.g.,

‘if we did not do that, we could not live’ (i.e. we cannot earn our sustenance in any other manner);

‘why should not I hear (grant) what you say (your wish)?’;

‘if (you) had not explained it, and (we) had not seen the signs, we would not have understood it’;

‘as a man would not find it, I must send an emanation’; vulg., WT,

‘if the distance was not so great, they would come to me (visit me)’. Here may be added, that also the intention of, or attempt at, doing something is expressed by the simple verb: thus,

‘though I did try to hinder him, I could not’;

‘as he saw his own disciple [64] on the point of springing into the water (and that he had sprung off the bank), he held him back by the force of his magic, so that he did not touch the water’ (s. [41. B. 2. b.](#)). Especially the gerunds in ([41. A. 6.](#)) have often this meaning:

‘when I was a b o u t to be parted from life,
he saved it’;

‘the snake, having become angry, though she i n t e n d e d (or: had at first int.) to let out her poison, reflected thus’. As will be seen from these examples, the action, in such cases, is thought to have begun in fact.

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A SURVEY OF THE PRINCIPAL FORMS OF THE FINITE VERB.

Present:

W give

I see intens.

C (or)

W (or); C

I am seeing

Perfect:

W gave, have given

C

W

C

saw,

went

went

I have given, i n t e n s .

has been given

[65]

Future:

W

shall, will give

C

i n t e n s .

shall, will see

,

will

arrive

Imperative:

W

give!

take out!

kill!

see! i n t e n s .

n e g a t .

do not give!

¹ The objects of and

often assume the dative-sign, cf. English 'to feed on'. ¹

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CHAPTER VII.

THE ADVERB.

42. We may distinguish three classes of adverbs: 1. Primitive adverbs. 2. Adverbs formed from Adjectives. 3. Adverbs formed from Substantives or Pronouns.

1. Very few Primitive Adverbs occur; the most usual are: 'now', 'when', (books and CT) or (WT) 'to morrow', and a few similar ones; 'again', and the two negatives and , the latter of which is used in prohibitive sentences, and with a past tense, as

'(I) do not give', '(I) shall not give', but:

'did not give', (WT:) 'do not [66]give!'

The verbs , , , have always instead of before them (40.). Another particle of this kind, of a merely formal value, is , which is added to any word or group of words in order to single it out and distinctly separate it from everything that follows. It is, therefore, often very useful in lessening the great indistinctness of the language, especially so when separating the subject from the attribute:

'that man is a Ladakee'. (There is scarcely an adequate word to be found in our modern languages, but the Greek γε, or μεν—δε—, are very similar.) In talking it is seldom heard, and, when used, in WT pronounced: .

2. Adverbs may be formed from any Adjective by putting it in the Terminative case. 'good', 'well';

‘principal’, ‘principally, very’; ‘violent’,
or ‘violently’.

3. Nearly all the l o c a l Adverbs are formed from Substantives or Pronouns with some local Postposition: ‘the place (space) above, upper part’,

 ‘above’, ‘upwards’, ‘from above
(downwards)’; ‘this’, ‘in this, here’, ,
 ‘hither, here’ (cf. [15.](#)), ‘hence’; ‘that’,
 ‘there’, , ‘thither, there’, ‘from there,
thence, then, after that’. [\[67\]](#)

Note. In talking the simple adjective is used, mostly, instead of its adverb (2. class): for — ‘quickly, soon’.

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CHAPTER VIII.

THE POSTPOSITION.

43. There are two kinds of Postpositions: 1. Simple Postpositions. These are the same that we know already as forming the cases ([15](#)). 2. Compound Postpositions, formed in the manner of local Adverbs ([42. 3](#)), with which they are, indeed, with a few exceptions, identical.

1. Simple Postpositions. These are: (the affix of the Dative),
(Locative), and (Ablative), , , , ,
(Terminative).

Their use will be best seen in the following examples:

WT, (inst. of
[38, Note](#)) CT ‘put the degchi on the fire!’.

, vulg: , Tsang:
‘the ass rolls himself on the ground’.

(or) ‘having mounted on the horse
(he) goes’, or ‘(he) goes on horseback’.

, vulg (WT): (corrupted
from [\[68\]](#)) , CT:
‘the bird flies in the sky’.

WT, CT ‘(we)
shall set out at night’.

(books and CT),
WT ‘being very glad at this’.

‘skilful in medicine’.

, vulg: ‘invited him to beer’.

WT, CT ‘is (there) ache in
(your) head’, ‘have you head-ache?’

, etc.

(or) , vulg: (or)
‘(he) is in the house, at home’.

, vulg: (or) ‘go into the
house, home!’.

, vulg: ‘at a (certain) time, once’.

(books) ‘from to-day in (after) seven days’.

; WT:

; CT: ‘the
mother carried the son in (her) arms’.

, vulg: ‘at that time’.

(books, for vulg. see Compound adv.) ‘for seven years’. [69]

(or), W:
‘(they) made (or selected, raised) that man to (be) king’.

, CT: (or)
‘they made (their) luggage into a pillow, used it as a pillow’.

(or) , WT: (s. [35. 2. b](#),
omitted, [40. 1. a](#)), CT: (or
, provincial irregularities [35. 2. c](#)) ‘where are (you) going?’

(or) (vulg.) ‘I am going to Tino (or K’oksar)’.

‘after eight months’.

‘from (after) the eighth month’.

(books and CT), WT: ‘from the beginning’.

‘from the window, through the window’.

, vulg: ‘to
deliver from the circulation (transmigration)’.

, WT: , Tsang:
‘to build a house out of brick (Ts: a house of brick)’.

‘from the sūtra Zamatog’. [70]

(vulg:)
‘one of (from among) the pupils’.

(books and CT), WT:
‘wiser than all, the wisest, most skilful of all’.

‘more than two are not left’.

‘more than myself are not’.

Besides these ‘with’ is to be mentioned as Simple Postposition: thus,

, WT:
‘speaking (conversing) with the youth’; ‘with me’, or, in
fuller form, , vulg:

‘together with me’. In WT it is even used for the
instrumental when the real instrument (tool) of an action is meant, e.g.
so in books, but

WT: ‘the king killed the minister with the

sword'. It is, moreover, added to many Adjectives and Verbs, when we use the Accusative or Dative or other Prepositions, e.g.

'like (with) that, similar to that'. With an Infinitive it denotes the synchronism of the action with another one, 'with the sun rising, at sunrise'; 'with (on) their going to sleep, when they went to sleep';

'(with) saying so he went home' or also 'he said so, and went home'. Often it is found with [71]an Imperative, without any perceptible signification, if it is not to be regarded as a substitute for (38):

'now eat!' For its use as a conjunction see the next chapter.

2. Compound Postpositions. These may conveniently be grouped in two classes: a) Local Compound Postpositions, which are virtually the same as the Local Adverbs specified in 42.3.: thus,

'in (the midst of)', 'into' also 'in', 'from, out of'.

The most usual ones will be seen in the following examples:

(or) 'to bathe in a pond'.

'he entered into the water' (both in books and common talk).

'the lord among the gods'.

(or) vulg. '(he) comes (emerges) out of the house'.

(or 上, or 下) 'above the door' (books and
vulg., but more usual in WT: 門上, CT 門下).

門上, vulg.: 門前 (or
, CT also 門前 'he died before his father'.

(or 上, or 下, or 中)
, vulg., in WT: 門上 (門下), CT:
'to sit on a lotus-flower'. [72]

(or 上, or 下) (books and talk) 'beside, near
the door'.

門下, vulg.: 門前, 門側,
'under a tree' (literally: 'in front, by the side, of a tree').

(門前) 'to
take before the judge'.

門下, CT, 門上 WT 'after
eight months'.

(or 前) vulg. 'before two
months, two months ago'.

門下 books and CT, WT:
'to hide a treasure below the ground'.

CT, WT:

‘to emerge, come out, from below the ground’.

books and CT, in CT also:

WT: , ‘beyond the water, river’.

books and CT, WT:

‘on this side of the water’.

(or)

, CT: , WT:

‘in (after) three days he will arrive beyond this plain, will have crossed it’.

‘in the four regions of the house, roundabout’. [73]

‘go in the direction of, towards, that village’.

, CT: (), WT:

‘for seven years’.

, CT: ,

WT: ‘from this to that’.

WT: ‘till I go to Kullu’.

b) General Compound Postpositions, expressive of the general relations of things and persons. They are formed in the same manner as the Local ones, from substantives, adjectives, and even verbs. Their use may be learned from the following examples:

() or books and CT, WT:

‘for me, in my behalf, for my sake, on my account’.

, WT:

, CT:

‘for what reason has that illness come? what is the cause of etc.?’.

‘in behalf of all living

beings’.

(WT:) ‘give (apply)

stone instead of wood’.

‘according to, like, as’—

‘doing according to the word of the king’;

[74]

‘according to that, like that, thus, so’;

‘as formerly, as before’; instead of it the dialect of WT uses

, generally with the Genitive, thus the last example there

would be:

.

‘like’,

‘like a hill’;

,

‘like this, like that, thus, so’,

, CT:

‘like what?

how? in what manner?’.

In the dialect of WT or is used instead (which
is a corruption of , occurring in books with the same meaning):
thus, ‘like a hill’; ,
 ‘thus’; or (properly), ,
 ‘thus’, ‘how?’.

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CHAPTER IX.

THE CONJUNCTION.

44. The written language possesses very few, the spoken still fewer, Conjunctions, most of which are coordinative. The common word for ‘and’ is _____ which we have seen above in the sense of ‘with’,

‘gold and silver and iron and collection (i.e. and so on)’, though the position of the *šad* (10.) after the word shows that it is always considered as belonging to the preceding member of the sentence, similar, in [75] this respect, to the Latin ‘que’; nor can it in any case begin a sentence. Very seldom, and only in later literature, it appears as combining two verbs, if not, indeed, the root ought to be regarded there as abbreviation for the infinitive. Further:

‘also, too’. When belonging to a single word or notion it is put after it in an enclitical way like ‘quoque’ in Latin. It is changed according to the termination of the preceding word, into after ¹,
into often after vowels (cf. [6](#)). Thus:

‘taking also a son (with him)’. When repeated, it has the signification of Latin ‘et—et—’, ‘both mother and son died’. Often, especially in negative sentences, it means ‘even’,

‘even one (they) did not find—not even one’. This is the only means for expressing ‘none, no, nothing’,

(or) (resp.) ‘nobody came’;

(, or) ‘there is nothing’ (cf.

29). When combined with verbs, ‘even searching (they) did not find’, it serves as another expression for ‘though’ or

also ‘but’ (s. [41. A. 7. b](#)): thus, ‘though they searched, they etc.’ or ‘they searched, but they etc.’. Standing [76] for itself (not leaning on the preceding word) it means ‘again, once more’ (when it is to be regarded as adverb),

‘there (I) fainting once more etc.’. In the beginning of a sentence it is ‘and, again, moreover’, and may occasionally be rendered by ‘however, but’, ‘or’; repeated,

‘either—or’.—‘Or’ is expressed also by the interrogative affix of the finite verb ([34. 1.](#)), etc.,

‘a bottle of gold, silver, or copper’.—

‘nevertheless, but’, vulg: occurs much less frequently in Tibetan than in the European languages.

The only Subordinate Conjunctions are: 1. ‘if’, introducing conditional sentences ending in ([41. A. 4](#)). But, as the conditional force really rests on the closing , the initial may be put or omitted at pleasure; 2. ‘but if’; ‘if I can ...’, ‘but if not ...’; this last is found only in books.

¹ This is not very carefully observed even in good mscr. and prints, where will occur sometimes after etc., and after the other consonants and even after vowels. †

CHAPTER X.

THE INTERJECTION.

45. The most common Interjection is , or, repeated,
‘oh!, alas!’ used also before the Vocative. The language of common life uses
instead: *wa*, or *wä*. [77]

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CHAPTER XI.

DERIVATION.

46. Derivation of Substantives. As most of what belongs under this head has already been mentioned in [11](#). and [12](#). only the formation of abstract nouns remains to be spoken of. 1. The unaltered adjective may be used as an abstract noun, especially with the article , as:

‘the cold is changed into warmth’.—To this may be added the pronoun (‘ipsum frigidum’); but this is used scarcely anywhere else than in metaphysical treatises, from whence a few expressions, such as ‘the vacuum, the absolute rest in deliverance from existence’ have become more generally known.—2. In the case of two correlative ideas existing, frequently the compound of both is used, esp. in common talk, ‘size’ (lit. ‘large and small’), ‘thickness’ (‘thick and thin’), e.g.

‘the size as much as a mustard-seed’.—3.

‘difference’ (or, sometimes, , ‘measure’) is added,

‘height’, ‘wealth, riches’.—4. Mental qualities are in most cases paraphrased by , or with a genitive, ‘mind of suffering, enduring, i.e. patience’, ‘wise mind, wisdom, skill’; ‘mind of rejoicing, [78]joy’ (vulg:),

‘mind of belief (also ‘a believing mind’), faith’.—5.

Diminutives are formed by adding the termination , often with an alteration of the preceding vowel: ‘horse’, ‘little

horse, foal'; 'man', 'little man, dwarf'; 'stone',
 'small stone, calculus'. If a word ends with a consonant, only *u*
 is added, and a new syllable formed: 'sheep', 'lamb'.

47. Derivation of Adjectives. 1. Possessive adjectives are regularly
 expressed by adding the syllable *-ia*, or the phrase *caput habens*,
 abridged to any substantive, 'having a head';
 'having the head of a man'; 'having hair,
 (long-)haired'; 'possessing
 knowledge, learned, wise'; *-itia* is never heard in common talk
 in WT.—2. Adjectives of appurtenance are generally expressed by the
 genitive of the substantive, 'of gold, golden';
 'the eye of flesh, the carnal, bodily eye', oppos.:
 'the eye of knowledge, spiritual eye'.—3. Negative, or
 privative adjectives are formed in several ways: *a*) by the simple negative
in-, 'unworthy'; 'unfit';
 'unheard of'. *b*) by adding *ab-* 'without', [79]
 'headless'; 'faultless'. *c*) by adding the verb
separare (*ab-*) 'separated from',
 'separated from the body, bodiless'.—4. The English adjectives in *-able*, *-*
ible are expressed by *aptus* 'to be fit', added to the Supine, or to the
 simple Root, 'fit for drinking,
 drinkable', *vulgo*: (from *potare* 'to be able'),
 (*per-*) 'permitted, lawful'. [80]

PART III.

SYNTAX.

48. Arrangement of words. 1. The invariable rule is this: in a simple sentence all other words must precede the verb; in a compound one all the subordinate verbs in the form of gerunds or supines, and all the coordinate verbs in the form of the root, each closing its own respective clause, must precede the governing verb (examples s. below).—2. The order in which the different cases of substantives belonging to a v e r b are to be arranged, is rather optional, so that e.g. the agent may either precede or follow its object. Local and temporal adverbs or adverbial phrases are, if possible, put at the head of the sentence.—3. The order of words belonging to a substantive is this: 1. The Genitive, 2. the governing Substantive, 3. the Adjective (unless this is itself put, in the genitive, before; [16](#)), 4. the Pronoun, 5. the Numeral, 6. the indefinite Article: thus, ‘this

my little daughter’;

‘a red gown’;

or

‘the red gown’;

‘these three great kingdoms’.

Adverbs precede the word they belong to:

‘very

great’;

‘come very quickly’.—

[81]4. In correlative sentences (cf. [29](#)) the Relative precedes the

Demonstrative:

‘what there is, give!’

i.e. ‘give whatever you have’, and in comparative sentences the thing with which another is compared, ordinarily precedes this (cf. [17](#)).

49. Use of the cases. As the necessary observations about the instrumental have been made in [30](#), about the other cases and postpositions partly in [15](#),

partly in [43](#), it is only the Accusative, that requires a few words more, as it is very often used absolutely (as in Greek). *a*) *A c c . t e m p o r a l i s* :

‘at night’;

‘during (his etc.)

lifetime’;

,

‘at that time’;

‘having studied for one day, after one day’s study’.—*b*)

A c c . m o d a l i s :

‘regarding the size, round’;

‘regarding the depth, eight

cubits’ (cf. [12](#));

‘regarding

colour, being like smoke’ (cf. [50, 1, a](#));

‘with regard

to (his) birth, equal’ i.e. ‘of equal birth’. Here

([42. 1](#)) is very often

employed:

etc. Nearly in all cases,

however, postpositions may be added, and in talking they are preferred to

the simple Accusative:

,

,

,

etc. [[82](#)]

50. Simple Sentences.—1. *A f f i r m a t i v e s e n t e n c e s*.—*a*) the attribute being a noun, the verb: *to be, become, remain* etc.;

‘this man is wise’;

‘this is a wise man’. When the verb is

(to

become),

(to remain) etc. the attribute must be put in the

Terminative:

‘(his) hair became

white’;

,

v u l g :

‘the king remained steadfast on

his vow’; in some special cases this may take place, even if the verb is

simply ‘to be’:

‘while his whole shape was like a man’s, his foot only was piebald’. *b*) the attribute being any other verb:

‘an ancient king of China built a very large wall in the north of that country’.

2. Interrogative sentences.—*a*) simple:

‘is your son in the house?’;
 ‘who is there?’; ‘what do you come for?’,
 ‘what do you want?’.— W (C) ‘how much
 (is) the price?’.

Besides the affix *am* the later literature and the conversational [83] language of CT has the accentuated interrogative particle ǎ, immediately before the verb:

t’ab ǎ yō ‘is there any means...?’;

lā di jě ǎ nū ‘can you do this work?’.

The form of a question is also used to express uncertain suppositions (likely to become realized), as:

‘is forgetting possible?’ for ‘he may possibly have forgotten it’;
 ‘won’t he die?’; ‘this (apparition) is not the devil, I hope?’.

b) double: ‘is (he) within or not?’;
 ‘is it agreeable (to you i.e. do you consent) to give me (your son) or not?’;

‘are you sorry at my arrival, or what (else)
is the matter (with you—because you weep)?’.

3. Imperative and Optative or Precative sentences do not require any
additional remarks besides what is said in [38](#).

51. Compound Sentences. After having examined in [41](#) the different
gerunds as the constituent parts of compound sentences, a few examples
will suffice for illustration.

1. Compound sentences, for the most part coordinative:

[1](#) [2](#)
[84] [3](#) [4](#)
[5](#) ‘The king having given a law, the good were
given rewards, the bad punished, measures and weights arranged, and
people taught letters (i.e. reading and writing)’.

2. subordinate sentences:

[6](#) [7](#)
[8](#)
[9](#) [10](#)
[11](#) [12](#)
[13](#) [14](#)
[15](#) [16](#) [17](#)
[18](#)
[19](#)

‘There being certain two women quarrelling about one boy, the king (being) wise of understanding having examined (the case) thus ordered: You two, having seized from each (side) a hand of the boy, pull, and who gets him, (she) may carry him off.—When he had so spoken, she who was not the boy’s mother, because she had no compassion for the boy, not fearing (she might) hurt (him), pulled with what force she had. She who (in truth) was the boy’s mother, because she had compassion with the boy, fearing (she might) hurt (him), though she was able by force, did not pull hard. The king said to her who had pulled hard: “Because this, not being your son, is the other woman’s son, say (it) outright”. When he had so spoken, as he had turned out to be the son of the gentle puller, (she) carried off the boy’. [86]

¹ , perf. ‘to make’ esp. ‘institute, [84]arrange’; gerund. ↑

² i.o. . ↑

³ ‘to cut’, but (or) ‘to inflict a punishment’. ↑

⁴ ‘to set in order, arrange’; perf. . ↑

⁵ , perf. ‘to learn’. ↑

⁶ [42. 3.](#) ↑

⁷ indefin. art. after numerals s. [13.](#) ↑

⁸ Accus. modal., [49.](#) ↑

⁹ , perf. . ↑

¹⁰ [27. 2.](#) ↑

11 , perf. , imp. ; cf. 41. 5 . ↑

12 [29.](#) ↑

13 , perf. and imp. . ↑

14 [43. 1.](#) ↑

15 [42. 1.](#) ↑

16 41. 8 . ↑

17 the object of the fear usually in the instrumental. ↑

18 termin. of inf. used as adverb, [41. B. 2. b.](#) ↑

19 [44.](#) ↑

20 [42. 2.](#) ↑

21 [42. 1.](#) ↑

22 ‘other’, almost always with the indefin. article; [13.](#) fin. ↑

23 is sometimes pleonastically added to (), to strengthen its meaning. ↑

24 [43.2.](#) ↑

25 , perf. , imp. . ↑

26 , perf. properly ‘as he has come to be’. ↑

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APPENDIX.

[Contents]

A COLLECTION OF PHRASES FROM DAILY LIFE, IN THE MODERN DIALECTS, ROMANIZED.

WT <i>k'yod gá-na yon,</i>	Where do you come from?
CT <i>k'yö' g'á-na yon.</i>	
W <i>k'yod su yin, C k'yö' s. y.</i>	Who are you?
W <i>k'yod (C k'yö') sū¹ yin.²</i>	Whose (man, servant) are you?
W <i>k'yod ráni mín òi zer,</i>	What is your name? (rule 34. 2. c is
C <i>k'yö'-kyi mín-la g'an zér-gi yö'-</i>	not always observed)
<i>d'am.</i>	
W <i>k'yód-di k'an-pa gá-na yod,</i>	Where is your house?
C <i>k'yö'-kyi k'an-pa g'á-na yö'(-</i>	
<i>pa).</i>	
W <i>k'yod òi - l a yon,</i>	Why do you come?
C <i>k'yö' g ' a n -la yon.</i>	(What do you want?)
W <i>òi-la 'i-ru dug.</i>	Why are you here?
W <i>na sruñ-te dad.</i>	I sit here to watch.
W <i>dī yúl-li m i ñ òi zer,</i>	What is the n a m e of this village?
C <i>yul dī m i ñ -la g'an zér-ra³ yim-</i>	
<i>pa. [87]</i>	
W <i>k'yod-la d e l - w a ⁴ zig yód-da,</i>	Have you any e r r a n d
C <i>k'yö' la d ' o n zig yö'-d'am.</i>	(b u s i n e s s)?

W	<i>cañ med; c'ón-la yon(s),</i>	Not any; I have come to no
C	<i>cañ mé'; d'on-mé'-la yon.</i>	purpose.
W	<i>da t'ug pa t'un-çe-la kañ-pa-la-son.</i>	Then go home to eat (drink) your soup.
W	<i>yod: ná-la man⁵ zig sal⁶,</i>	Yes: please give me some medicine.
C	<i>yö': ná-la man zig nan⁷-rog.</i>	
W	<i>ná-la zug⁸ yod, Tsug gyág⁹-gī,</i>	I am ill (I have got, am befallen with, an illness).
Ü	<i>ná-la ná-t'sa ton¹⁰-gi dug.</i>	
W	<i>zúr-mo rag, C--dug.</i>	I feel pain.
W	<i>gá-na, C g'á-na.</i>	Where?
W	<i>dód-pa¹¹-la, C d'ö'-pa-la.</i>	In the stomach.
W	<i>gól-la zug rag, C---yö'.</i>	I have headache.
W	<i>na-za yan-pa-la c'a-çe-la t'sante rag.</i>	We should have taken a walk, but it is too hot.
WC	<i>dilen.</i>	Take this!
W	<i>dik'yer, C dik'ur son.</i>	Take this with (you)!
W	<i>dik'yon, C dik'ur sog.</i>	Bring this!
W	<i>digá-zug ço-çe,</i>	How shall I do this?
C	<i>dig'an-dā¹² jě' ton (or jě' gyu) yin (yim-pa).</i>	
W	<i>dí-zug ço mi gos (goi, gō),</i>	You must not do it in this way.
C	<i>dí-dā jě' mi gō. [88]</i>	
W	<i>ná-la da-ruñ ó-ma zig gos,</i>	I want some more milk.
C	<i>ná-la d'a-ruñ wó-ma sig gō.</i>	
W	<i>ilág-mo ço, C di lég-mo jā.</i>	Clean this!
W	<i>bé-ma dān tu¹³-çe,</i>	Wash it with sand!

C *j̣é - m ạ̄ ṭ'ụ̄.*

W *ña-la c̣' u c̣ u ñ z a d* (C *sä'*) Give me some water, please!
c̣ i g ñaṅ¹⁴ ñig (C *šig*).

W *lág-pa l á g - m o yód-da,* Are (your) hands clean?

C *lág-pa l é g - m o (l ā - m o , or*
t s a ṅ - w a) é yö'.

W *o-ma t ' s a g - r ạ̄ - l a t'sag toṅ,* Filter the milk through the
C *wo-ma - - - t'sag šog.* filtering cloth!

W *t ' a b c̣' u ñ - s e ḍé c̣' o g - l a b o r -* Put the little stove there!
toṅ,

C *- - - d' é c̣' o g (c̣' ö) - l a ñag¹⁵ - c̣ i g.*

W *p ' à n - d i l s á - l a p' o b¹⁶ (p' a b -* Put the pot (*degçi*) down on the
toṅ), ground!

C *s a ṅ¹⁷ s á - l a p' á b - š i g.*

W *zaṅ(-bu) me daṅ ñ e - m o b o r,* Put the pot near the fire!

C *saṅ me d' a ṅ ñ e - m o ñ a g.*

W *p' o g t o n.* Take it off!

W *ñí-ma gás¹⁸ - s a (g ạ̄ - a) t s á m -* As soon as the sun sets, light a
ñ i g - g a m e p' u¹⁹, fire!

C *- - g ạ̄ t s a m - š i g - l a - - .*

W *kar-yol k' y o ṅ - ñ a s o n.* Go to fetch the china!

- - l e n - n a š o g. Come to take away - -. [89]

W *c̣' u d ā ṅ - m o²⁰ d a ṅ ṭ ú - n a k a r -* If you wash with cold water, the
yól²¹ m i d a g (or k a r - y o l l a g - m o china does not become clean; wash it
m i c̣' a - y i n); t ' s á n - t e ñ i g l á ṅ - well with some hot (water)!

C *c̣' u d' a ṅ m ạ̄ ṭ ụ̄ n a k a r - y ó l m i*
d a g; t ' s á m - m o š i g g ī l é g

(lā)-pa-tù̯sog.

- W lās (lā)-ka t'saṇ-ma t'sar-na
m á n - n a ma c'á,
C - - - m a m - p a do²² mi c'og.
W sol-cóg²³ t'al-ḍig²⁴ cò-a,
C - - - jě' gyu yin-na(m).
W o-ná; còg-tán t i ñ ²⁵ toṇ,
C yā-ya; còg-tán t í ñ -cìg.
W t i b - r í l l i naṇ-na c'u mán-po
yód-da ñún-ñu yód,
C - - gyi-naṇ-na c'u mán-po yö'-
d'am ñún-ñu yö'.
W ñún ñu ñig yod (a-t'sig man-na
med),
C ñún ñu ñig yö'.
W tib-ril c'u k a ñ ²⁶- t e k'yoṇ,
C - - c'ũ k á ñ - n ā. k'ur sòg.
W tib-ril d z a g dug.
W k á r - y ā ²⁷ dan jàr²⁸ gos (gō),
C k á r - y ā. (or s a - k a r - g y ī)
jàr gō.
W g a r - w a ²⁹ tsar³⁰ k'yer,
C k'ur soṇ. [90]
W s e l - k o r gas (gā) soṇ,
C s e l - p ' o r gā. soṇ.
W ñā. ma zer-na s i ñ ma k'yoṇ,
C - - ser-na - - kyal³¹.
- Unless all the work is done, don't go!
(or) you must not go.
Shall I make the table ready?
Yes; l a y (s p r e a d) the cloth!
Is there much water in the t e a p o t ,
or little?
(But) a little.
F i l l the teapot with water, and bring
it!
The kettle l e a k s .
It must be soldered (fastened with
p e w t e r).
Take it to the b l a c k s m i t h ' s .
The tumbler (g l a s s - c u p) has got
a crack.
Unless I tell you, do not bring
w o o d !

W	<i>sab m o l -na k'yoñ yin,</i>	When master c o m m a n d s , I shall
C	<i>sa-hib s u ñ ³²-na kyal gyu yin.</i>	bring.
W	<i>sab gá-zug m o l ,</i>	What did you s a y , sir (did the
C	<i>sa-hib g'an s u ñ wa yin.</i>	gentleman say)?
W	<i>ma p ' a ñ ³³; bud ma cùg³⁴,</i>	Don't cast it away! Do not let it slip!
C	<i>ma b ' o r -wa j'ě'; b'ü' ma cùg.</i>	
WC	<i>rig-pa ñim³⁵,</i>	Take care! Cautiously!
W	<i>k'a-dar cò.</i>	
W	<i>n á n ³⁶-cè man,</i>	You must not press!
C	<i>n á n gyu min.</i>	
W	<i>ḍás³⁷-si (ḍḍ-i) lág-ma t í ³⁸- t e</i>	P u t b y the remainder of the rice!
	<i>b o r ,</i>	
C	<i>ḍḍ-kyi lhág-ma t ' s a g j' ā.</i>	
W	<i>l a g - m a mi dug, càn ma l u s</i> <i>(lṽ).</i>	There is no r e m a i n d e r ; nothing is left.
W	<i>o-ma l u d ma cùg,</i>	Do not let the milk run over!
C	<i>wo-ma l ü ' ma cùg.</i>	
W	<i>c'ín-pa³⁹ ma túb⁴⁰-te s ó n - t e</i>	Not cutting the liver, bring it as a
	<i>k'yoñ,</i>	w h o l e !
C	<i>- - - - t ' s á ñ - m a (or g ' á ñ -</i> <i>m o) k'ur-şog.</i>	
W	<i>a - l u şu-te tub toñ,</i>	Peel the p o t a t o e s , and cut them in
C	<i>kyi - u (or ḍ o - m a ⁴¹) şu-te</i> <i>tub-çig.</i>	pieces!
	<i>mañ-po (or yun riñ-mo) ma</i> <i>g o r .</i>	Don't t a r r y much! [91]
W	<i>gyog-pa (C gyog-po, gyō-po)</i> <i>şog.</i>	Come soon!

W	<i>ma j`ed⁴²,</i>	1. Do not forget! 2. (I) did not forget.
C	<i>ma j`ě'.</i>	
W	<i>yid-la zum⁴³ t'ub-ba,</i>	Can you remember it (bear it
C	<i>sem-la nē t'ub-ba.</i>	in mind)?
W	<i>yid-la zum gos (gō),</i>	You must bear it in mind, (make it
C	<i>nē-pa j`ě' gō.</i>	certain).
	<i>nañ-du soñ; nañ-du sog.</i>	Go in! Come in!
W	<i>nañ-du kyod⁴⁴,</i>	Go (or come) in, sir!
C	<i>nañ-du p'eb.</i>	
W	<i>dod⁴⁵, C dā'.</i>	Sit down!
	<i>žug⁴⁶.</i>	Please sit down, sir!

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READING EXERCISE.

The Story of *Yug-pa-čan* the Brahman⁴⁷.

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A LIST OF THE MORE FREQUENT VERBS¹¹⁵.

a) Four-rooted verbs.

Pres.	Perf.	Fut.	Imperv.	WT
				stop, hinder. <i>kag-çe</i>
				fill. <i>kañ-çe</i>
				lade, put on ... <i>kal-çe</i>
				cut. <i>cad-çe</i> imprv. <i>cod</i>
				tie, bind.
	} ()			<i>co-çe</i> make. pf. and imp. <i>cos</i>
	()			destroy. <i>sig-çe</i>
				put in. <i>ç'ug-çe</i>

Pres.	Perf.	Fut.	Imperv.	WT
			put, place.	(C: <i>zag-pa</i>)
			cut.	<i>zog-çe</i>
			give.	<i>tañ-çe</i> imp. <i>ton</i>
			look.	<i>(l)ta-çe</i> [100]
			lift; weigh.	<i>tag-çe</i> imp. <i>tog</i>
			throw.	<i>tab-çe</i> imp. <i>tob</i>
			tie, bind.	<i>tag-çe</i> imp. <i>tog, tag ton</i>
			get, drive, out.	<i>ton-çe</i> always for
			throw, hurt.	<i>p'an-çe</i>
			do, make.	for it <i>ço-çe</i>

Pres.	Perf.	Fut.	Imperv.	WT
				bring, let, down. <i>p'ab-çe</i>
	{	}		filter, sift. <i>t'sag-çe</i>
				sell. <i>tsoñ-çe</i>
		,		seize. <i>zum-çe</i>
			(),	take. <i>len-çe, lañ-çe</i>
		()		learn; teach. <i>lab-çe</i>

b) Three-rooted verbs.

Pres.	Perf.	Fut.	Imperv.	WT
				carry. <i>k'ur-çe</i>
				bring. <i>k'yoñ-çe</i> for

Pres.	Perf.	Fut.	Imperv.	WT
			throw, cast.	<i>gyab-çe</i> imp. <i>gyob</i> for
	()	()	run.	<i>gyug-çe</i>
			break.	<i>çag-çe</i> , imp. <i>çog</i>
			tell, explain.	<i>şad-çe</i>
			hold.	<i>ten-çe</i>
			draw.	to lead: <i>ran-çe</i> to remove: <i>deş-çe</i>
	()		() descend.	
	()		blow (act.).	<i>p'u-çe</i>
			put off, drop (act.).	<i>p'ud-çe</i>

Pres.	Perf.	Fut.	Imperv.	WT
				take, <i>p'in-çe</i> pull out.
	()		()	open <i>p'e-çe</i> , (act.). imp. <i>p'e(s)</i> .
				say. s. _____ _____
				rise. <i>lan-çe</i>

c) Two-rooted verbs.

Pres.	Perf.	Imperv.	WT
		be born.	<i>skye-çe</i>
		bear, beget.	<i>skye-çe</i>
		carry.	<i>k'yer-çe</i> [102]
		become.	<i>gyur-çe</i>
		go; become. [only in certain sentences.	<i>do-çe</i>
		alter.	<i>gyur-çe</i>

Pres.	Perf.	Imperv.	WT
			weep. <i>ñu-çe</i>
			die. <i>ši-çe</i>
			flee. <i>šor-çe</i>
			enter. <i>žug-çe</i>
			buy. <i>ño-çe</i>
			sit; stay. <i>dad-çe</i> imp. <i>dod</i>
			increase (neutr.) <i>p'el-çe</i>
	()	()	pour. <i>lug-çe</i>
			blow (neutr.) <i>p'u-çe</i>
			call. <i>bo-çe</i> , imp. <i>bos</i> (<i>boi</i> , <i>bō</i>).
			appear, originate. <i>juñ-çe</i>
			enjoy. <i>ñañ-çe</i>
			build up. <i>tsig-çe</i>
			ask. <i>žu-çe</i> (<i>ju-çe</i>)
			arrive. <i>leb-çe</i>

WT

be glad, to like. Ld. *ya-çe*, W besides

fall, drop. *dil-çe*, also ()

, leap, jump. *ç'on-çe*

lie down. *ñal-çe*

meet. *t'ug-çe*

be able. *t'ub-çe*

find, get. *t'ob-çe*

hear. *(t'sor-çe)*

see. *t'on-çe*

be glad, to like. *t'ad-çe*, nearly always for
and

come out, go
out. *t'on-çe*, usual for

wish, like,
desire. rare.

be able. s.

stay, dwell,
remain. *nas (nai, nā)-çe*, but usually: *dad-çe*

burn. *bar-çe*

perceive. *t'sor-çe*, and usual for

do, make
(resp.). *dzad-çe*, imp. *dzod*. [104]

WT

say. *zer-će*, usual for

remain, be left. *lus-će*

turn back,
return. *log-će*

know. *šes (šē)-će*

() understand. *há-go-će*

1 ↑

2 The numbers refer to the notes at the end of the collection, exhibiting the spelling of some of the words that are most disfigured in pronunciation. ↑

3 vulgar supine [41, Note 1](#). ↑

4 ↑

5 ↑

6 ↑

7 ↑

8 ↑

9 ↑

10 ↑

11 ↑

12 ↑

13 ↑

14 ↑

15 ↑

16 iprv. ↑

17 ↑

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↑

19

iprv. ↑

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prf. of

↑

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prf. of

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prf. of

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31

prf. of

↑

32

↑

33

iprv. of

↑

34

prf. of

↑

35

↑

36

↑

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38

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39

↑

40

prf. of

↑

41

↑

42

↑

43 i.o. from ↑

44 ↑

45 ↑

46 ↑

47 From the *Dzañ-lun* (). ↑

48 [13.](#) ↑

49 [15, 5.](#) ↑

50 , perf. , fut. , iv. ‘to make, do’, in some cases: ‘to say, call’,
‘so to be called, so called’.— is a translation of the Sanscrit

name . ↑

51 [40. 1. c.](#) ↑

52 [41. A. 1.](#) ↑

53 [40. 1. b](#) and [47. 3. b.](#) ↑

54 [34. 1.](#) and [40. 1. g.](#) ↑

55 [15. 5.](#) ↑

56 [42. 3.](#) ↑

57 perf. of ‘to give; to send, let go’. ↑

58 perf. of ‘to rise’. ↑

59 s. [50](#)). ↑

60 [41. A. 7.](#) ↑

61 imp. of ‘to give’, ‘to return’. ↑

62 [37. 2.](#) ↑

63 s. [57](#)); ‘don’t let pass’; [38. 2.](#) ↑

64 perf. of ‘take, seize’. ↑

65 perf. of ‘to throw, fling’. ↑

66 perf. of ‘to break’. ↑

67 s. [60](#)). ↑

68 [43. 2.](#) ↑

- ⁶⁹ perf. of 'to prepare, purpose'. ↑
- ⁷⁰ rule [30](#). is not always strictly observed. ↑
- ⁷¹ [43. 2.](#) ↑
- ⁷² perf. of 'to fall'. ↑
- ⁷³ perf. of 'to seize'. ↑
- ⁷⁴ [43. 2. b.](#) ↑
- ⁷⁵ [41. A. 6. b.](#); = . ↑
- ⁷⁶ [49.](#) ↑
- ⁷⁷ 'from the inner (i.e. other) to this', 'across'. ↑
- ⁷⁸ carpenter (lit. 'lakṛīwālā', cf. [12. 1.](#)). ↑
- ⁷⁹ perf. of 'to ask'. ↑
- ⁸⁰ [40. 1. g.](#) ↑
- ⁸¹ [41. A. 8.](#) ↑
- ⁸² perf. of 'to throw down'. ↑
- ⁸³ s. [75](#)). ↑
- ⁸⁴ 'sat down'. ↑
- ⁸⁵ if the verb is in the infv., the subject is usually put in the accus., when we use the genitive. ↑
- ⁸⁶ 'returning it so that the owner saw it'; [41. B. 2. b.](#) ↑
- ⁸⁷ 'I did not return it with the mouth i.e. by saying anything'. ↑
- ⁸⁸ 'because ([41. A. 8](#)) that Yugp. did not say it (viz: I give back)'. ↑
- ⁸⁹ [41. B. 2. a.](#) ↑
- ⁹⁰ [41. A. 5.](#) ↑
- ⁹¹ perf. of 'to tie, fasten'. ↑
- ⁹² impv. of 'to take out, pull out' etc. ↑
- ⁹³ 'firstly', less frequent and somewhat different from ([22](#)). ↑
- ⁹⁴ 'my' ([24](#)). ↑
- ⁹⁵ 'secondly'. ↑
- ⁹⁶ [17. 1.](#) ↑

⁹⁷ ‘it is better that Y. should be the winner, than that besides having been robbed of my ox, I should lose my eyes into the bargain’. ↑

⁹⁸ ‘another said: O god! etc.’ (used in addressing a king like Sanscr.). ↑

⁹⁹ perf. of ‘to kill’; ‘to die’ has perf. ; an e l e g a n t word ([24, Note](#)). ↑

¹⁰⁰ perf. of ‘to enter’. ↑

¹⁰¹ , perf. ‘to go, walk’; e l e g . ‘to say’. ↑

¹⁰² [41. A. 5. b.](#) ↑

¹⁰³ Nomin. for Instrum., s. [30](#) fin. ↑

¹⁰⁴ perf. of ‘to be much, many; to become m.’. ↑

¹⁰⁵ partic., ‘that a man was concealed (behind it)’. ↑

¹⁰⁶ [41. A. 5.](#) ↑

¹⁰⁷ [27. 1.](#) ↑

¹⁰⁸ imper. of e l e g . for ; ‘go and make the husband of this same (woman)’. ↑

¹⁰⁹ ‘than that he should be (my) husband’. ↑

¹¹⁰ s. [103](#)). ↑

¹¹¹ partic., ‘the axe which I held from (i.e. with) my mouth’. ↑

¹¹² [40. 3](#) ‘whatever things be carried, it being right to carry them on the shoulder’. ↑

¹¹³ for s. [75](#)). ↑

¹¹⁴ ‘different, several’, —‘separately, each for himself’. ↑

¹¹⁵ They are here arranged according to the number of the roots, though these are in many instances, not so strictly observed, even in printed books, as they ought to be. It should especially be remarked that the mute in the perf. and imp. is in most cases either put or omitted very arbitrarily. ↑

COLOPHON

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Title:	Tibetan Grammar
Author:	Heinrich August Info Jäschke (1817– 1883) https://viaf.org/viaf/61583153/
Editor:	Heinrich Wenzel Info (1855–1893) https://viaf.org/viaf/34630954/
File generation date:	2022-10-22 21:02:37 UTC
Language:	English

Original 1883
publication
date:

REVISION HISTORY

2021-09-25 Started.

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N.A.	26	27	1
N.A.	27	3	2

<u>N.A.</u>	neutre	neuter	2
<u>1</u>	Ṣron-tsan-gam-po	Sron-tsan-gam-po	2 / 0
<u>2</u>	speak	say	3
	<i>Passim.</i> [Not in source]	.	1
<u>3</u>	in	at	2
<u>4</u>	respectivily	respectively	1
<u>4</u>	whom	which	3
<u>4</u>	[Not in source]	under	6
<u>4</u>	همرنة	همزة	2
<u>4</u>	exercion	exertion	1
<u>4</u>	to	[Deleted]	3
<u>5</u>	componend	component	1
<u>5</u>	down	[Deleted]	5
<u>5, 13</u>	preceeding	preceding	1
<u>6, 48</u>	dissappears	disappears	1
<u>6</u>			1
<u>6</u>	Diphthongs	Diphthongs	1
<u>7</u>	conjunction	succession	8
<u>7</u>	either	each	4
<u>7</u>	Subjoined	Subscribed	4
<u>7</u>			1
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<u>8</u>	subjoined	subscribed	4
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8 , 19 ,			
55 , 75	[<i>Not in source</i>]	)	1
8	lauguage	language	1
8	above	over	3
8	contonants	consonants	1
9	ease	case	1
10	judgement	judgment	1
10 , 16 ,			
21 , 22 ,			
44 , 44 ,			
61 , 78 ,			
92 , 96	[<i>Not in source</i>]	,	1
10	ḍan-po	ḍañ-po	1 / 0
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11	[<i>Not in source</i>]	1.	3
11	excepted	except	2
12 , 58	is	it	1
13	for denoting	to denote	5
13			1
13	W.T.	WT	2
14	exlamation	exclamation	1
14	,	.	1
16	[<i>Not in source</i>]		2

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1

[18](#), [19](#),

[33](#), [36](#),

[46](#)

,

[*Deleted*]

1

[20](#)

indisriminately indiscriminately 1

[20](#)

thrown out superseded 10

[20](#)

Bus But 1

[21](#)

add adds 1

[21](#)

an a 1

[23](#)

movement motion 5

[23](#)

consonantal consonantal 1

[23](#), [90](#)

lū lū̄ 2 / 0

[25](#)

Tsan Tsan̄ 1 / 0

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[63](#), [74](#),

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[26](#)

endings terminations 8

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preceeds precedes 2

[26](#)

سى س 1

[27](#)

that than 1

[30](#)

go cíg go-číg 1

<u>31</u>	21.	21st	2
<u>32</u>			
			1
<u>33</u>	so	to	1
<u>34</u>	letter writing	letter-writing	1
<u>36</u>	notions	terms	5
<u>36</u>	[<i>Not in source</i>] and		4
<u>36</u>	himself in his own speech	speaking of himself	19
<u>38</u>	gh.	ghan	2
<u>38</u>	und	and	1
<u>39</u>	way	may	1
<u>40</u> , <u>103</u>	verb	verbs	1
<u>40</u> , <u>40</u>	neutral	neuter	3
<u>40</u>	[<i>Not in source</i>] an		3
<u>41</u>	shape	form	5
<u>41</u>	shapes	forms	5
<u>41</u>	likes	prefers	5
<u>42</u>	Perfet	Perfect	1
<u>42</u>	acknowledges	recognises	9
<u>43</u>	and	or	3
<u>43</u>	notion	idea	6
<u>45</u>	[<i>Not in source</i>] the		4
<u>46</u>	always will	will always	10
<u>46</u>	te	to	1

47	bit	bitten	3
50	.	,	1
51	synonymes	synonyms	1
52	replaces	expresses	6
53	fouud	found	1
53	notion, opposite	sense, opposed	9
55	appendices	affixes	6
55			1
55			1
55			1
56	kings-place	king's-place	1
60	[<i>Not in source</i>] 1.		2
61	kings	king's	1
61	.'	'.	2
62	;	,	1
63	sent	send	1
64	intented	intended	1
66	principal	principally	2
73	,	:	1
76	40. 1. A. 4	41. A. 4	3
85	[<i>Not in source</i>] “		1
85	,	”	1
86	g'an	g'añ	1 / 0
92 , 100	[<i>Not in source</i>]		1
94	41. 6. <i>b</i>	41. A. 6. <i>b</i>	3

ABBREVIATIONS

Overview of abbreviations used.

Abbreviation	Expansion
--------------	-----------

f.i.	for instance
------	--------------

i.o.	instead of
------	------------

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